



Measuring Neoliberalism: Development and Initial Validation of a Scale of Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes

Patrick R. Grzanka¹ · Joseph R. Miles¹ · Elliot S. Spengler¹ · James E. Arnett III¹ · Jessica Pruett²

© Springer Science+Business Media, LLC, part of Springer Nature 2019

Abstract

Critics of neoliberalism argue that so-called meritocratic and identity-neutral social policies and political positions actually reinforce and exacerbate intersecting inequalities, namely racism, sexism, heterosexism, classism, and ethnocentrism/xenophobia. The purpose of these studies was to develop and initially validate a scale of neoliberal attitudes from a wide range of existing instruments that reflect anti-neoliberal theory. A series of three studies resulted in a 25-item instrument—the *Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes Scale (ANAS)*—that exhibits initial evidence of construct validity, internal consistency, and test–retest reliability. Exploratory factor analysis with students from two universities revealed a four-factor structure of *Racism and Sexism Awareness*, *Communitarian Values*, *Multicultural Ideology*, and *Inequality Consciousness*. However, a confirmatory factor analysis with an independent sample of undergraduate students suggests a bifactor model in which the general factor explains most of the variance and that the instrument should be treated as a single scale, rather than independent subscales. Significant correlations with measures of right-wing authoritarianism and social dominance orientation suggest convergent validity. Temporal stability was established via a test–retest analysis in an independent sample of undergraduate students. Finally, responses from a sample of MTurk workers provided evidence of the ANAS’s incremental validity when compared to an existing measure of neoliberal beliefs. Implications for future empirical work on the psychological dimensions of neoliberalism are discussed.

Keywords Attitudes · Neoliberalism · Multiculturalism · Intersectionality · Social justice

✉ Patrick R. Grzanka
patrick.grzanka@utk.edu

¹ Department of Psychology, The University of Tennessee, 1404 Circle Drive, Knoxville, TN 37996, USA

² University of California, Irvine, USA

Introduction

The landscape of contemporary social inequalities in the USA presents social scientists with unique challenges in assessing attitudes about race, gender, ethnicity, class, sexuality, and other dimensions of human cultural diversity. Inequalities are profound and worsening by many metrics (Piketty, 2014), yet can be increasingly difficult to “see.” For example, though women occupy positions of power and leadership in virtually all American social institutions (though, notably, not the US Presidency), a stark gender wage gap persists (Hegewisch, 2018). Likewise, Barack Obama’s presidency corresponded with the disproportionate decimation of African-American middle-class wealth in the wake of the Global Economic Crisis (Bonilla-Silva & Dietrich, 2011) and the rise of the Black Lives Matter movement to oppose persistent, pervasive state violence toward African-Americans. As psychologists and other critical social scientists documented, the twentieth and early twenty-first centuries were marked by the transformation of discriminatory attitudes into subtle and socially acceptable forms of prejudice that perpetuate a status quo of inequity (e.g., Bonilla-Silva, 2002; Gaertner & Dovidio, 1986; McConahay, 1986; Neville, Lilly, Duran, Lee, & Browne, 2000). Indeed, much of contemporary social issues research has been preoccupied with reconciling the apparent paradox of American inequality: how, amid so much evident multiculturalism and persistent disavowal of inequality, can this pluralistic society remain so profoundly unequal?

Psychologists have studied these phenomena and crafted important tools to tap these kinds of attitudes via survey instruments and computer-mediated methods (e.g., the Implicit Association Test) (Fazio & Olson, 2003), examine their antecedents and consequences, and—most importantly—intervene and transform these attitudes in the interest of social justice. In domains such as neo- or “benevolent” sexism (Tougas, Brown, Beaton, & Joly, 1995), color-blind racial ideology (Neville, Awad, Brooks, Flores, & Bluemel, 2013; Neville et al., 2000), modern homonegativity and heterosexism (Morrison & Morrison, 2002; Walls, 2008), and social class politics (Kraus & Keltner, 2013), for example, psychologists have cultivated ways of understanding contemporary attitudes about gender, race, sexuality, and class that undergird support for the unfair policies and practices that perpetuate inequality in the USA. These attitudes coexist with an increasingly multicultural and diverse image of the USA circulated in mass media (Gray, 2013; Grzanka & Maher, 2012), politics (Melamed, 2011), and education (Ahmed, 2012; Ferguson, 2012). What psychologists, broadly, have been less successful at is: (a) understanding the structural forces that produce and sustain these attitudes, and (b) recognizing the ways race, gender, sexuality, and other dimensions of difference intersect and co-construct one another, rather than operate as parallel or discrete psychosocial phenomena (Bowleg, 2008; Cole, 2009; Grzanka & Miles, 2016).

In contrast to single-axis research that imagines systemic social forces as wholly independent, our project foregrounds the structural and institutional dynamics of contemporary inequalities, while attending to the ways in which

these social forces are co-constitutive and intersectional (Cole, 2009; Crenshaw, 1989, 1991; Grzanka, 2019). Drawing upon the robust literature on neoliberalism that has become ubiquitous in other disciplines (Grzanka, Mann, & Elliott, 2016) and the strengths of extant research in critical psychology and allied fields, we developed the *Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes Scale (ANAS)* as a multidimensional survey instrument that reflects how individuals perceive interlocking themes of social inequality in US culture, with a focus on the structural conditions that engender inequalities. First, we situate this measurement tool within the interdisciplinary literature on neoliberalism. Next, we detail the development of the scale across three studies and provide preliminary evidence of its psychometric validity and reliability. Finally, we suggest ways that the ANAS may function as a tool for intersectional, multicultural, and social justice-focused research and social action.

The Origins of Neoliberalism

Though few psychologists have engaged the topic (cf. Bay-Cheng & Zucker, 2007; Bettache & Chiu, 2019; Sugarman & Thrift, 2017), sociologists, political scientists, geographers, and other social scientists, policy analysts, and cultural critics have developed theories of “neoliberalism” to describe and critique the paradox of inequality in the USA and worldwide that has been building since World War II (Brown, 2003, 2015; Grzanka et al., 2016; Harvey, 2005; Springer, 2016). Not to be confused with “liberal” (i.e., politically left-leaning), *neoliberalism* is a term derived from classical forms of liberalism (e.g., John Locke’s social contract, Adam Smith’s political economy), which generally supported the protection of private property as the key to social cohesion among free (i.e., “liberal”) people. In classical liberalisms, government is positioned in society as a necessary evil. Specifically, government protects liberty by enforcing rules so that society can function—namely, that (free) people can freely work, accumulate wealth, and prosper with limited government intervention (Singh, 2007). In neoliberalism, on the other hand, the market is conceptualized as a socially constructed engine for supporting markets. Even as neoliberal policies may coincide with a retreat of government from the social welfare state, the “retreat” has the productive effect of positioning the state as the ultimate defender of the market’s interests (Birch, 2015; Foucault, 2008; Grzanka et al., 2016). While neoliberalism’s advocates view governmental *regulation* as a fundamental impediment to prosperity, neoliberalism simultaneously situates government’s role as facilitating the advancement of markets and market-based logics into virtually all areas of social life, including education, health care, transportation, infrastructure, etc. Accordingly, neoliberalism has been referred to as “capitalism with the gloves off” (McChesney, 1999, p. 8) because its proponents insist that the market should be completely deregulated and that market forces and logic will resolve all problems economic and otherwise.

Neoliberalism may start in political economy, but its implications are far more extensive. Harvey’s (2005) influential work situates neoliberalism in the macro-economic transformations brought about by the policies of Reagan and Thatcher in the 1980s, which touted deregulation and privatization as the means by which

prosperity would “trickle down” to the masses (see also Briggs, 2008; Martin, 2002). Other scholars have extended Harvey’s framework to illuminate the links between neoliberal agendas that promote inequality and the multicultural rhetorics that imbue them with such power, conflating notions of freedom, liberty, free trade, competition, opportunity, wealth, diversity, consumption, markets, tolerance, and even equality. Duggan (2003), for example, charts a historical framework that begins somewhat earlier than Harvey’s and foregrounds the cultural dynamics at play in the widespread deregulatory practices of the past 60 years. Duggan’s key point is that attacks on radical social justice movements of the 1960s and 1970s, the “culture wars” of the 1980s and 1990s, and the rise of multiculturalism at the end of the twentieth century are not disconnected epochs; to the contrary, neoliberalism often works with—not against—diversity to commodify forms of difference while transforming social movement politics into impotent, empty signifiers (Gray, 2013; Grzanka & Mann, 2014; Melamed, 2006). Perhaps best signified by the Human Rights Campaign’s omnipresent equal sign logo, Duggan calls this “Equality, Inc.”—a stripped-down, non-redistributive form of equality designed for global consumption and compatible with (not antithetical to) continued upward redistribution of resources. In the context of higher education, cultural critic Ahmed (2006) has similarly critiqued institutional diversity statements, which are quintessentially neoliberal artifacts, stating, “It is as if the university now says, if we are committed to antiracism (and we have said we are), then how can we be racists?” (p. 110; Ahmed, 2012; Ferguson, 2012). In this sense, “social justice” itself becomes a commodity in neoliberal times. For example, numerical representations of students and faculty of color, as well as celebratory and uncritical multicultural programming, make historically White, heterosexist institutions more prestigious and competitive in the “marketplace of diversity” (Grzanka & Maher, 2012).

But how can a neoliberal agenda involve antipathy toward feminism if, for example, women’s studies classes are popular (i.e., *in demand*)? As scholars have empirically documented, signifiers of diversity and multiculturalism (e.g., “Safe Space” signs, diversity committees) become protective armor against accusations of discriminatory practices or structural inequalities (Gutiérrez y Muhs, Niemann, González, & Harris, 2012), even as these institutions remain structurally hostile toward difference or any incorporation of diversity that corresponds with redistributive consequences (Zambrana, 2018). Gray (2013) notes that neoliberalism is neither indifferent or agnostic when it comes to difference; in the late twentieth and early twenty-first century, neoliberalism has effectively transformed struggles for Black liberation, for example, into issues of representation: “visibility and recognition at the level of representation affirms a freedom realized by applying a market calculus to social relations....a form of power” (p. 771). In other words, neoliberalism’s cultural dynamics make it possible for universities to *market* diversity while remaining ambivalent toward the substantive intellectual agendas and transformative aims of feminist and critical race studies (see the recent controversies over Yale’s ethnic studies program; Graziano, 2019), because these critical intellectual agendas are fundamentally threatening to market-based logics even though they may be profitable in the marketplace of diversity (Brown, 2015).

Neoliberalism is not a monolithic policy agenda, and irony and contradictions are somewhat of a hallmark of neoliberalism (Duggan, 2002, 2003; Elliott, 2014; Ferguson & Hong, 2012; Martin, 2002, 2013; Melamed, 2011; Omi & Winant, 1994; Puar, 2007; Reddy, 2005, 2011; Reich, 2014). Neoliberalism is hegemonic and so operates largely invisibly; for example, it is difficult to make sense of oppression and inequality when institutions are insistent upon their so-called inclusive practices (e.g., diversity statements) (Ahmed, 2012; Epstein, 2007). And, while it manifests heterogeneously *and* the term is often applied haphazardly (Phelan, 2007), the following key themes can be derived from the literature on neoliberalism:

(1) A focus on *privatization* and *corporatization* and on deemphasizing the role of the government in all aspects of social life, including education, health, politics, etc. This includes a pervasive privileging of market forces from macro- (e.g., “free trade”) to meso- and micro-levels (e.g., “welfare-to-work”) of society, instituting market practices, logic, and rhetoric in places and spaces that were previously thought of as noneconomic (e.g., “school choice,” “healthcare marketplace,” “right-sizing” academic departments; Soto & Joseph, 2010).

(2) Superficial multiculturalism proliferates at the expense of redistributive social justice and transformation; diversity imagery and rhetoric supplants structural equality. Inclusion and incorporation drive policy making and institutional agendas, reflecting an overarching ambivalence and even hostility toward social transformation.

(3) In turning attention from structures, neoliberalism both compartmentalizes social issues as if they were distinct or even opposed (e.g., racism versus homophobia), and directs attention toward *individuals* and their *choices* as the root of social problems. This inattention to structures includes a denial of inequalities grounded in socially constructed identity categories (e.g., race, sexual orientation, gender) and the material consequences of systemic oppressions (e.g., racism, heterosexism, sexism).

These themes, generated by critiques of neoliberalism (i.e., *anti-neoliberal* theory), suggest ways neoliberalism influences multiple social issues that have long been of interest to psychologists, especially those who study discrimination, prejudice, and inequality.

Psychological Research on Neoliberal Themes

Though intersectionality, feminism, queer theories, and other movements (e.g., ethnic studies, disability studies) have encouraged psychologists to consider the relationships between multiple dimensions of difference (e.g., race, gender, sexuality, class) in the production and maintenance of inequality, there has been relatively little explicit uptake of neoliberalism as an analytic frame in psychology—with recent notable exceptions (Bettache & Chiu, 2019)—despite its relative ubiquity in other fields that have prioritized social justice. However, much of the psychological research on contemporary aversive, covert forms of what Neville et al. (2013) refer to as “hyper-modern” discrimination (Gaertner & Dovidio, 1986; Henry & Sears, 2002; McConaghy, 1986) imply neoliberal themes without using the term

or conceptualizing various sites of inequality as necessarily interconnected. We first review these approaches, followed by work that has operationalized neoliberal beliefs.

For example, Neville and colleagues' research on color-blind racial ideology (CBRI; e.g., Neville et al., 2000, 2013) intervened in the proliferating discourse on the "post-racial" USA that denies the significance of race. Building on and extending sociologists' (Bonilla-Silva, 2003; Frankenberg, 1993), and others' elaborations of color-blind racism as an ironic form of "racism without racists," CBRI refers to the various ways that individuals rationalize and justify their beliefs in social contexts where overt expressions of racism are socially unacceptable or not politically correct. Neville et al. (2013) divided CBRI into two dimensions—"color evasion" and "power evasion"—both of which reflect neoliberal ideology. Color evasion encompasses strategies individuals use to minimize racial differences and emphasize sameness and equality (e.g., "I don't see color," "We are all the same"). Color evasion is accompanied by discomfort in discussing racial issues among both Whites and people of color, and fewer substantive interracial relationships. Power evasion describes the ways that individuals downplay the role of race and racism in structuring US society, including denying that racism exists, insisting that everyone has equal opportunities, and suggesting that prejudice against White people is a legitimate and important social problem. Both dimensions are indeed associated with higher levels of racial prejudice among Whites and internalized oppression among people of color. CBRI reflects neoliberal ideology inasmuch as these attitudes deny the ongoing importance of structuring systems of privilege and oppression that perpetuate race-based inequalities today. Neville and colleagues propose color consciousness and multiculturalism as alternatives to CBRI; empirical research on CBRI and on intergroup dialog suggests that explicitly attending to racial issues, including structural inequalities, can reduce "blindness" to racial privilege and institutional forms of discrimination, while also increasing empathic perspective-taking (Muller & Miles, 2017).

Feminist psychology has a long history of resisting neoliberal logics in academic psychology and society at large. For example, Betz's (1989) classic work on women's career development illustrates the consequences of eliding the role of gender inequality in institutional settings. Betz borrows Freeman's (1979) "null environment hypothesis," which stipulates that ignoring systemic inequality actually makes inequality much worse. Freeman (1979), likewise, explains that, "Succinctly put, the hypothesis states that an academic situation that neither encourages nor discourages students of either sex is inherently discriminatory against women because it fails to take into account the differentiating external environments from which women and men students come" (p. 221). In the context of universities, "professors don't have to make it a specific point to discourage their female students. Society will do that job for them. All they have to do is to fail to encourage them. Professors can discriminate against women without really trying" (p. 221). Outside of the academy, Tougas et al. (1995) found that so-called neosexist beliefs predicted attitudes about affirmative action unlike more traditional patriarchal beliefs. Contrary to neoliberal perspectives, the economy is not gender-neutral and pretending it does not reduce inequality (Norton, 2016). Feminist psychologists such as Betz, Fitzgerald, and

Fassinger (1995) have taken the null environment hypothesis out of the university and into diverse career contexts to show how not doing anything about sexism is the same as exacerbating the multifarious effects of gender inequality. Black feminist and critical race theorist Kimberlé Crenshaw (1997) puts it another way: “it is fairly obvious that treating different things the same can generate as much inequality as treating the same things differently” (as cited in Collins, 2000; p. 23).

In the domains of social class and sexual orientation (SO), psychologists have examined issues that are socially undesirable, yet prevalent. For example, Kraus, Keltner, and colleagues (2013) have studied beliefs about social class to understand how people come to associate low socioeconomic status (SES) with fundamental human weaknesses. Of course, individuals are not likely to say something like, “poor people are horrible human beings.” However, lack of support for social programs that aid the poor suggests that many people do believe that the working poor and homeless in the USA are undeserving. Kraus and Keltner (2013) found that upper-class individuals are more likely to endorse essentialist beliefs about social class that locate the cause of poverty within the individual while minimizing structural and contextual factors; furthermore, these individuals were also less likely to support restorative justice, which aims to rehabilitate rather than simply punishing criminal offenders. Their work connects negative attitudes toward poor people with ideological structures, including essentialism and meritocracy, a hallmark of neoliberalism (Horberg, Kraus, & Keltner, 2013). Accordingly, they approach prejudicial attitudes obliquely, illuminating how economically inflected belief systems predict negative evaluations of low SES individuals.

Similarly, Morrison and Morrison’s (2002) work on modern homonegativity is concerned with understanding how prejudicial attitudes toward sexual minorities persist in a society that appears to increasingly accept sexual minorities as equal citizens (c.f., Duggan, 2003). They use the term “modern” to describe contemporary attitudes toward lesbians and gay men that are not overtly hateful and that may appear “politically correct” (e.g., “I am fine with gay people, as long as they don’t shove their lifestyle down my face”), but that express overall devaluation of sexual minorities. Likewise, Walls’s (2008) modern heterosexism scale divides these attitudes into four domains: aversive heterosexism (e.g., there is too much attention on gay issues), amnesic heterosexism (e.g., discrimination based on sexual orientation does not exist), paternalistic heterosexism (e.g., “It’s okay as long as it’s not my kid”), and positive stereotypic heterosexism (e.g., gay men are fashionable). Both Morrison and Morrison and Walls’s work delineates neoliberal attitudes toward sexual minorities inasmuch as these attitudes reflect a superficial acceptance of homosexuals while denying that inequality and discrimination toward sexual minorities matters today.

A key contribution of feminist, queer, and antiracist research on neoliberalism has been to expose the ironic collusion of multiculturalism with neoliberalism (Ahmed, 2006, 2012; Melamed, 2011). For example, Melamed (2006) argues that, “Race continues to permeate capitalism’s economic and social processes...yet multiculturalism portrays neoliberal policy as the key to a postracist world of freedom and opportunity” (p. 1). To Melamed and other critics, shallow multiculturalism serves as an effective smokescreen that obfuscates the material consequences of neoliberal

policies. Psychologists tend to have a different relationship to the concept of multiculturalism. For example, within counseling psychology, multiculturally informed attitudes, knowledge, and skills represent an integral part of “multicultural competence,” which is often framed as: (1) pro-social attitudes, knowledge, and/or skills, and (2) positive outcomes of efficacious pedagogical and therapeutic interventions for social justice (Kernahan & Davis, 2007, 2010; Spanierman & Poteat, 2005; Sue, Arredondo, & McDavis, 1992). More broadly, Berry and Kalin (1995) defined “multicultural ideology” as support for having a culturally diverse society in Canada. In addition to negative correlations with ethnocentrism, they found significant positive correlations between multicultural ideology, perception of positive consequences of multiculturalism, and support for multicultural policies. Meanwhile, critics outside of psychology have highlighted the unrealized promise of multiculturalism in institutional settings (Ahmed, 2012; Ferguson, 2012; Soto & Joseph, 2010). The discrepancies between these perspectives warrant empirical inquiry into the potential connections between multicultural attitudes, awareness, or competencies and neoliberal ideologies about race, class, gender, and other dimensions of inequality.

Intersectional perspectives have illuminated the interconnections between systems of oppression that work—often through neoliberal channels—to produce and sustain inequalities. Neoliberalism is not about race *or* gender, sexuality *or* social class; neoliberal policies use multifarious forms of social difference to advance the interests of (those in control of) the market. In this sense, neoliberalism is an equal opportunity discriminator. A cornerstone of intersectionality theory is the insistence that identities should not be understood as categorical variables and that oppression is not simply an additive or cumulative phenomenon (Grzanka, 2019). Intersectionality theory’s exponents in psychology have argued for research that foregrounds intersectional dynamics in order to understand and critique how systems of inequality co-construct one another, rather than operating as parallel, non-overlapping phenomena (Bowleg, 2008; Cole, 2009; Moradi & Grzanka, 2017; Rosenthal, 2016; Shields, 2008; Warner, 2008). In the context of neoliberalism, intersectionality then has the potential to expose how inequalities (e.g., race, class, gender, sexuality) cooperate to advance neoliberal agendas (i.e., upward redistribution of resources, dismantling of public services and infrastructure) (Collins, 2014). Much of the psychological research on what we call neoliberal attitudes has *not* taken an intersectional approach (see above), so we argue that empirical inquiry is necessary to examine neoliberal attitudes from an intersectional perspective. For example, how might CBRI and neosexism collaboratively reflect neoliberal attitudes? Though they target different social groups, what ideological characteristics might these attitudes have in common?

Notably, some psychologists and scholars in allied fields (e.g., social work, sociology) have studied neoliberalism explicitly, and they have connected neoliberal concepts to applied social issues (Bay-Cheng, 2015). Bay-Cheng and colleagues, for example, developed a psychometric tool to assess neoliberal beliefs, which they assert are increasingly recognized by psychologists to be the residue of broader neoliberal social forces. In contrast to right-wing authoritarianism (RWA; Altemeyer, 1981) and social dominance orientation (SDO; Pratto, Sidanius, Stallworth, & Malle, 1994), neoliberalism’s emphasis on meritocracy and post-identity politics is

not necessarily conservative even as it may align closely with the anti-regulatory politics of contemporary conservatism (Bay-Cheng, Fitz, Alizaga, & Zucker, 2015). Bay-Cheng and colleagues (2015) incisively argue that neoliberal beliefs are also not equivalent to libertarianism inasmuch as neoliberal positions do not fundamentally reject the role of the state in social and policy issues; instead, they emphasize that such interventions, like affirmative action, are no longer necessary (Cho, 2002). Indeed, as others have echoed, neoliberalism does not represent the total retreat of the state from social life but the state's advocacy of market principles in all arenas of society, such as health promotion and health care (e.g., the healthcare "marketplace" of the Affordable Care Act). Bay-Cheng et al.'s instrument, which was published after our study began, emphasizes post-identity themes of system inequality (i.e., the belief that affirmative action is unnecessary), competition (i.e., that capitalism is natural), personal wherewithal (i.e., meritocracy), and government interference (i.e., that the government should not resist economic activity). In contrast to our work, Bay-Cheng and colleagues were not as expressly interested in how neoliberal beliefs may be directly represented in sociocultural and political attitudes that are explicitly identitarian (Grzanka et al., 2016). As such, their work stays closer to the literature on neoliberalism that emphasizes the economic, whereas our work described below foregrounds the cultural.

Neoliberalism, Intersectionality, and Measurement: The Present Inquiry

Psychologists have developed several potent tools to assess aversive, hyper-modern attitudes about inequality, many of which echo what scholars in other disciplines identify as neoliberal themes. These attitudes have generally been assessed in isolation, however, and lack an intersectional theoretical framework to explain how these attitudes might relate to one another and/or correspond to broader themes about the structure of society (Grzanka et al., 2016). Accordingly, we designed the following studies to develop a comprehensive instrument to study neoliberal attitudes and to explore the relationships among important constructs in the study of inequalities outlined above. Furthermore, we took an intersectional approach in order to examine how individual survey items from commonly used measures of contemporary social attitudes might coalesce around meaningful concepts that expose the interconnections among color-blind racism, neosexism, modern homonegativity, and other ideological frameworks that reflect neoliberal themes. We hypothesized that (H1) our scale of neoliberal attitudes will exhibit a multidimensional structure incorporating multiple themes of neoliberalism (i.e., a focus on privatization, corporatization, and "free" market forces, superficial multiculturalism, and a focus on individuals versus structures); (H2) these themes will not solely correspond to identity and identity-based forms of oppression (e.g., race/racism, gender/sexism, sexuality/heterosexism); (H3) the scale will demonstrate moderate, significant correlations with measures of convergent validity, namely right-wing authoritarianism (RWA) and social dominance orientation (SDO); (H4) the scale will demonstrate temporal stability over a 2-week period; and (H5) the scale will exhibit incremental validity above and

beyond Bay-Cheng et al.'s (2015) Neoliberal Beliefs Inventory as a predictor of attitudes toward intersectionality, gun control, and abortion.

General Method

In what follows, we report all measures, conditions, and data exclusions, as well as complete information about sampling procedures.

Preliminary Item Construction

Two faculty members and one graduate student in counseling psychology identified 27 published measures that might reflect neoliberal themes as defined in the literature (Table 1). We evaluated scales and individual items for their face validity, which was defined by how adequately the items capture elements of neoliberal ideology. In the interest of balancing the demand for survey brevity and breadth of themes, we ultimately retained seven measures and identified two candidates for convergent validity analyses: right-wing authoritarianism (short form; Zakrisson, 2005) and social dominance orientation (Pratto et al., 1994). External auditing by four interdisciplinary scholars with expertise in neoliberalism suggested the addition of five original items for a total on 125 items on a fully anchored, 5-point, Likert-type scale ranging from 1 (*strongly disagree*) to 5 (*strongly agree*; Hoyt, Warbasse, & Chu, 2006).

Study 1: Exploratory and Confirmatory Factor Analysis

The purposes of Study 1 were to: (1) establish the factor structure of the scale using exploratory factor analysis (EFA), (2) assess the fit of the proposed factor structure using confirmatory factor analysis (CFA), (3) evaluate the internal consistency of factors, and (4) examine relationships with measures of convergent validity.

Method

Participants

Respondents were recruited simultaneously at two sites. First, the fifth author and two other undergraduate research assistants recruited participants in public spaces to take a paper version of the survey at a large university campus in the Southwestern US. These participants ($n=196$) were incentivized with the chance to win one of ten \$50 cash prizes via a raffle. At the second site, a large university campus in the Southeastern US, we used an online version of the survey with participants ($n=296$) in a psychology department's subject pool. Data were screened with a combined sample of $N=492$; of these, four respondents who had 75 or more missing items were eliminated. Forty-five respondents who completed

Table 1 Initial measures considered

Scale name (author and year)	Number of items
<i>Classism</i>	
Beliefs About Social Class (Kraus & Keltner, 2013)	10
Modified Economic Belief Scale (Stevenson & Medler, 1995)	16
<i>Racism</i>	
Symbolic Racism 2000 Scale (Henry & Sears, 2002)	10
Symbolic Racism Scale (Kinder & Sears, 1981)	12
Modern Racism Scale (McConahay, Hardee, & Batts, 1981)	7
Color-blind Racial Attitudes Scale (Neville et al., 2000)	20
Neoracism Scale (Tougas et al., 2004)	9
<i>Sexism</i>	
Ambivalent Sexism Inventory—Benevolent Sexism (Glick & Fiske, 1996)	11
Attitudes Toward Women Scale (Spence & Heimreich, 1972)	55
Modern Sexism Scale (Swim, Aikin, Hall, & Hunter, 1995)	8
Neosexism Scale (Tougas et al., 1995)	11
<i>Heterosexism</i>	
Modern Homonegativity Scale (Morrison & Morrison, 2002)	12
Modern Homophobia Scale (Raja & Stokes, 1998)	46
Modern Heterosexism Scale (Walls, 2008)	23
<i>Just World Ideology</i>	
Global Belief in a Just World Scale (Lipkus, 1991)	6
Multidimensional Belief in a Just World Scale (Rubin & Peplau, 1975)	20
<i>Protestant Work Ethic</i>	
Pro-Protestant Work Ethic Scale (Blood, 1969)	8
Australian Work Ethic Scale (Ho & Lloyd, 1984)	7
Protestant Work Ethic Scale (Mirels & Garrett, 1971)	11
<i>Distributive principles, attitudes toward multiculturalism, and social dominance</i>	
Intolerant Schema Measure (Aosved, Long, & Voller, 2009)	54
Multicultural Ideology (Berry & Kalin, 1995)	10
Preference for Meritocracy Scale (Davey et al., 1999)	15
Perceived Support for Meritocracy (Horberg et al., 2013)	4
Perceived Support for Egalitarianism (Horberg et al., 2013)	4
System Justification Scale (Kay & Jost, 2003)	8
Proportionality Scale (Rasinski, 1987)	12
Multicultural and Color-blind Ideology Scale (Ryan, Hunt, Weible, Peterson, & Casas, 2007)	8

Bolded scales were included in the final item pool

the online survey in less than 10 min were also eliminated. Data were randomly split into two samples in SPSS 22 (IBM Corp., 2013), following recommended best practices for scale development (Worthington & Whittaker, 2006); this enabled us to conduct EFA ($n = 213$) and CFA ($n = 230$) in independent samples that

Table 2 Participant demographics in study 1 EFA ($n = 213$) and CFA ($n = 230$)

Characteristic	EFA		CFA	
	<i>n</i>	%	<i>n</i>	%
Gender identity				
Woman	92	43.4	111	48.3
Man	118	55.7	119	51.7
Other	2	0.9	0	0.0
Sexual Orientation				
Straight/heterosexual	180	85.7	198	86.1
Gay/lesbian	13	6.2	9	3.9
Bisexual	7	3.3	10	4.4
Queer	4	1.9	5	2.2
Other	6	2.9	6	2.6
Race				
African-American/Black	12	5.6	18	7.8
East/South Asian American	15	7.0	12	5.2
American Indian/Native American	2	0.9	0	0.0
Biracial/multiracial	20	9.4	20	8.7
Hispanic/Latino	11	5.2	11	4.8
White	149	70.0	164	71.3
Other/refused	4	1.9	5	2.2
Year in college				
1st year	109	51.7	140	60.9
2nd year or greater	102	48.3	90	39.1
Age	19.9 (SD=3.7)			
Socioeconomic status	5.9 (SD=1.7)			

ns = 210–213 (EFA) and 228–230 (CFA) due to missing data from some participants

EFA exploratory factor analysis, CFA exploratory factor analysis

adhere to best practices and meets or exceeds sample sizes for similarly developed instruments (e.g., Arseneau, Grzanka, Miles, & Fassinger, 2013). Demographics are detailed in Table 2.

Measures

The survey began with a brief demographic questionnaire asking participants to indicate their age, race, gender, sexual orientation, year in college, and socioeconomic status (assessed via the MacArthur Subjective Social Status Scale; Adler, Epel, Castellazzo, & Ickovics, 2000). They then completed the 97 potential scale items, plus two hypothesized measures of convergent validity (RWA and SDO), for a total of 125 items. Five of these items were original and based on auditor feedback (e.g., “The notion of universities providing students with undergraduate

degrees in Women's Studies is ridiculous"); all other items were drawn from the following validated measures. Note that we do not report observed Cronbach's alphas for these scales because they were used as potential items for inclusion in the new measure, not as separate scales.

Color-Blind Racial Attitudes Scale (CoBRAS; Neville et al., 2000) The CoBRAS is a widely used, 20-item scale that measures color-blind racial attitudes (i.e., the denial, distortion, and minimization of racism). The CoBRAS consists of three subscales, which measure unawareness of: (a) racial privilege, (b) institutional discrimination, and (c) blatant racial issues. In previous studies, coefficient alphas for the Racial Privilege subscale ranged from .71 to .83, coefficients for the Institutional Discrimination subscale ranged from .73 to .76, and coefficients for the Blatant Racial Issues subscale ranged from .70 to .76 (Neville et al., 2000). Coefficient alphas for the total scale ranged from .84 to .91 (Neville et al., 2000). Neville et al. (2000) provided convergent validity evidence such that the CoBRAS subscales were found to relate significantly to the Global Belief in a Just World Scale (Lipkus, 1991), the Multidimensional Belief in a Just World Scale (Furnham & Procter, 1988 as cited in Neville et al., 2000), and the Quick Discrimination Index (Ponterotto et al., 1995). Neville et al. also provided evidence for the temporal stability of the CoBRAS over a 2-week period (.68).

Neosexism Scale (NS; Tougas et al., 1995) The Neosexism Scale (NS) was developed to measure the construct of modern sexism, a subtle form of sexism characterized by the belief that women are no longer targets of discrimination, antagonism toward women's group's demands, and lack of support for policies that benefit women (Tougas et al., 1995). The 11-item NS has demonstrated good internal reliability ($\alpha = .81$), and corrected item-total correlations range from .10 to .76 (Campbell, Schellenberg, & Senn, 1997; Tougas et al., 1995). Furthermore, principal components analysis reveals that the scale is one-dimensional (Campbell et al., 1997). Construct validity of the NS has also been supported, as it is correlated with the Modern Sexism Scale, the Attitudes Toward Feminism Scale, and the Women's Movement Scale (Campbell et al., 1997). Path analysis additionally revealed that neosexist beliefs predicted attitudes about affirmative action, while old-fashion sexism did not significantly contribute to reactions to affirmation action (Tougas et al., 1995).

Modern Homonegativity Scale (MHS; Morrison & Morrison, 2002) The 12-item MHS measures negative attitudes toward gay men and lesbian women that are based on more contemporary concerns. These concerns include the following: (1) gay men and lesbian women make unnecessary or illegitimate demands for changes in the status quo (e.g., the right to marry); (2) discrimination against gay men and lesbian women seldom occurs (i.e., it is a thing of the past); and (3) gay men and lesbian women place too much emphasis on their sexual orientation and, in so doing, prevent themselves from becoming part of "mainstream" culture. Parallel 12-item gay (MHS-G) and lesbian (MHS-L) versions of the MHS exist in order to

assess beliefs about both gay men and lesbian women, with lower scores indicating less prejudicial beliefs. Reported internal consistency metrics range from .87 to .91 (Morrison & Morrison, 2002; Morrison & Bearden, 2007). Scores on the MHS correlate with political conservatism and modern sexism, and mean scores on the MHS were higher than mean scores on measures of traditional homophobia, suggesting that the MHS taps into a more socially acceptable form of homonegativity and is less susceptible to floor effects (Morrison & Morrison, 2002).

Proportionality Scale (PS; Rasinski, 1987) The PS is a 12-item instrument that measures four different principles of distributive justice: economic individualism, equity, equality, and need-based. Economic individualism and equity represent the internal value of proportionality—the notion that individuals receive resources based on the amount of work they do and that people get what they ultimately deserve (i.e., the “just world” view). The latter two, equality and need-based distribution, represent egalitarian views that assert governments should allocate resources based on the ideological principle that people should be treated equally and that some individuals need more help than others. Three items comprise each of the four subscales on the PS. Factor analysis yielded a two-factor structure for the PS, such that items measuring economic individualism and equity loaded onto one factor (proportionality), and equality and need-based items loaded onto a second factor (egalitarianism). Additionally, the two factors shared a moderate, negative correlation, with still two-thirds of the variance unexplained, adding support for the scale’s discriminant validity. Proportionality correlated with personal characteristics such as independence and ambition, and egalitarianism correlated with qualities such as forgiving and helpful (Rasinski, 1987). Though Rasinski (1987) collected multiple pieces of evidence for PS’s validity, he did not report any reliability; however, Davey, Bobocel, Son Hing, and Zanna (1999) reported an acceptable $\alpha = .65$.

Perceived Support for Meritocracy and Perceived Support for Egalitarianism (PSM and PSE; Horberg et al., 2013) The PSM is a 4-item scale that measures support for meritocracy (i.e., resources should be distributed according to skill and aptitude) in society. The internal consistency coefficient for the scale ranged from .70 to .90 when used a sample of undergraduates of White or Asian descent. Over a series of studies, scores on the PSM were linked to expressions of pride (Horberg et al., 2013). Specifically, faces that conveyed pride were judged to be indicators that a person supports meritocracy as opposed to egalitarian principles (Horberg et al., 2013). The PSE, developed concurrently, is a 4-item scale that measures support for egalitarianism in society, whereby egalitarianism reflects the notion that resources should be distributed equally to members of society (i.e., who gets what and how much is independent of individual achievement and competition). The internal consistency coefficient for the scale ranged from .70 to .89 when used a sample of undergraduates of White or Asian descent. Horberg et al. (2013) found that participants rated images of people displaying pride and descriptions

of people characterized as selfish as less likely to endorse egalitarian values than meritocratic values.

System Justification Scale (SJS; Kay & Jost, 2003) The SJS is an 8-item measure of the fairness, justifiability, and legitimacy of the current social system. Cronbach's alpha for the scale was good (.87), and an assessment of the convergent validity of the scale showed a positive relationship with beliefs in a just world. Kay and Jost (2003) showed that system justification increased in participants when primed with a story of either a "rich but unhappy" or a "poor but happy" individual, consistent with their hypothesis that people will judge a system as fair if outcomes for others are balanced in some way.

Multicultural Ideology (MI; Berry & Kalin, 1995) The 10-item MI scale assesses support for multiculturalism and diversity in Canadian society, but we removed any references to Canada in the items. The internal consistency of the scale was .80 in the original scale development article (Berry & Kalin, 1995). Scores on the MI correlated in the expected direction with attitudes of tolerance (i.e., willingness to accept people from culturally different backgrounds), support of policies and programs that aim to raise awareness of multiculturalism, and the perceived consequences of multiculturalism (Berry & Kalin, 1995).

Social Dominance Orientation (SDO; Pratto et al., 1994) The 14-item SDO measures the preference for one's in-group to dominate an out-group. Pratto et al. (1994) conceptualize social dominance as a general attitude toward intergroup relationships. Those who favor social dominance prefer rules, policies, and principles that create hierarchies based on superior–inferior dichotomies (e.g., meritocracy), and take on roles and occupations that enhance their social dominance. Cronbach's alpha for the SDO ranged from .81 to .89 across 12 samples, and test–retest reliability correlation ranged from .81 to .84 in two samples (Pratto et al., 1994). Scores on the SDO negatively correlated with empathy, tolerance, and altruism, and an assessment of the scale's discriminant validity revealed that the SDO shared partial correlations with policy attitudes when parsing out authoritarianism and political conservatism (Pratto et al., 1994).

Right-Wing Authoritarianism Scale—Short Form (RWA; Zakrisson, 2005) The 15-item RWA scale is a short form of Altemeyer's (2004) measure designed to assess attitudes of authoritarian submission, authoritarian aggression, and conventionalism. Our external auditors found one of the fifteen items on the RWA too confusing ("The society needs to show openness towards people thinking differently, rather than a strong leader, the world is not particularly evil or dangerous"), so we did not include it in our survey. Zakrisson reported a Cronbach's alpha of .72 for this measure. In addition, Zakrisson found that scores on the short form of the RWA were significantly correlated with the SDO, as well as measures of racism and sexism.

Procedure

After providing informed consent, online participants were directed to the Internet-based survey, which took about 20 min to complete. Face-to-face participants were given a letter of informed consent followed by a paper version of the online survey. In-person participants could volunteer their name and address on a separate sheet if they wished to participate in the cash raffle, whereas online participants received course credit.

Results

Preliminary Analyses

Our factor analytic procedures were generally guided by Worthington and Whittaker's (2006) guidelines for scale development. First, we analyzed the responses for missing data and found that less than 1% of cases were missing for any single item in both samples. Accordingly, we used expectation maximization (EM) in SPSS 22 to estimate these missing values per recommended best practices (Schlomer, Bauman, & Card, 2010; cf. Dockendorff, Petrie, Greenleaf, & Martin, 2012). Next, the factorability of both samples was assessed using Bartlett's (1950) test of sphericity and the Kaiser–Meyer–Olkin test of sampling adequacy. The KMO value for both samples was $> .80$ and Bartlett's test was significant ($p < .001$), suggesting that the data were appropriate for factor analysis (Tabachnick & Fidell, 2001; Worthington & Whittaker, 2006).

Exploratory Factor Analysis

To help inform the appropriate number of factors to extract, we first ran a parallel analysis (Horn, 1965) and Velicer's minimum average partial (MAP) tests (original and revised [Velicer, Eaton, & Fava, 2000]) using the Integration Plug-in for R package for SPSS, which suggested 5, 8, and 16 factors. Because of this range of results and the large number of items involved in these suggestions (contrary to our goal of item reduction), we proceeded with item reduction through an iterative process of factor analysis. We selected principal axis factoring with an oblique (Promax) rotation in SPSS 22, because we suspected that any emergent factors could be inter-correlated, given the nature of the items and the constructs under investigation (Worthington & Whittaker, 2006). Initial item communalities fell within the appropriate range for factor analysis ($\hat{h} = .30$ to $\hat{h} = .77$), and so we proceeded to factor selection and item elimination procedures. We used multiple stringent cutoff criteria in order to maximize factor structure parsimony, minimize item cross-loadings ($< |.3|$), and to eliminate items with the lowest factor loadings ($< |.40|$) (Costello & Osborne, 2005). Based on the Skree plot (Kahn, 2006), we examined 3-, 4-, and 5-factor solutions and ultimately eliminated the MHS items, which consistently loaded onto the same factor. Through an iterative process of factor analysis and item deletion, a 4-factor, 25-item structure exhibited the best statistical properties, explained 56.90%

of the variance, demonstrated strong face validity, had sufficient numbers of items per factor, and incorporated the widest range of items from multiple scales, though none of the items we developed with auditor input were included in the final solution. Pearson product-moment correlations revealed weak to moderate correlations between the factors (Cohen, 1992); factor 4 was negatively correlated with the other three factors (see Table 2). We used structure and pattern coefficients to guide naming the factors (Kahn, 2006): *Racism and Sexism Awareness* (33.50% variance accounted for [VAF]), *Communitarian Values* (9.22% VAF), *Multicultural Ideology* (7.85% VAF), and *Inequality Consciousness* (6.33% VAF) (see Table 3).

The Four-Factor Model

Items about race, gender, and social class loaded across multiple factors; as hypothesized, no factor represented a single identity-based construct with the exception of the modern homonegativity items, which all hung together and so were removed during the item reduction process. Contrary to our expectations, the majority of items (15 of 25) appeared to reflect *anti*-neoliberal theory, rather than endorsements of neoliberalism. Factor 1, Racism and Sexism Awareness, contained 7 items that reflect: (a) awareness of the persistence of racism and sexism, particularly in the workforce; and (b) the necessity of government intervention to address racism. Sample items include, “I consider the present employment system to be unfair to women,” and “It is important for political leaders to talk about racism to help work through or solve society’s problems.” Based on their factor loadings and content, four items were reversed-scored (e.g., “Racial problems in the U.S. are rare, isolated incidents”). Higher scores on this factor indicate greater awareness of racism and sexism; Cronbach’s alpha was .87.

Factor 2, Communitarian Values, contained 6 items that reflect belief in the government’s role in providing basic services, such as health care and legal representation, as well as ideas about general societal responsibilities, including progressive taxation. Sample items include, “Society should provide resources and services free-of-charge to people who cannot afford them,” and “It is not right for people to go hungry in this country.” This factor was dominated by items about support for egalitarianism and proportionality. Higher scores on this factor suggest greater endorsement of the need for a strong social welfare state; Cronbach’s alpha was .82.

Multicultural Ideology, Factor 3, included 6 items that reflect: (a) belief in the value of multiculturalism and ethnic diversity to US society, and (b) the primacy of education in promoting multicultural awareness. Sample items include, “It is important for public schools to teach about the history and contributions of racial and ethnic minorities,” and “We should recognize cultural and racial diversity is a fundamental characteristic of U.S. society.” Higher scores on this factor reflect an ethical commitment to multiculturalism, particularly in terms of the representation of racial and ethnic minorities in education and culture. We observed a Cronbach’s alpha of .82.

The fourth and final factor was unique in that it was the only one that reflected neoliberal themes of system justification, individualism, and meritocracy, and it was negatively correlated with the other three factors. Because we anticipated a

Table 3 Four-factor solution from EFA with principal axis extraction and promax rotation

Item	Mean	SD	Rotated pattern (structure) coefficients			
			Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4
I consider the present employment system to be unfair to women	3.20	1.03	.784 (.780)	.114 (.470)	-.026 (.387)	.101 (-.343)
Racism is a major problem in the USA	3.50	1.00	.760 (.738)	.058 (.414)	-.055 (.341)	.048 (-.347)
Racism may have been a problem in the past, and it is not an important problem today (R)	2.14	.98	-.706 (-.738)	.032 (-.384)	-.013 (-.389)	.082 (.430)
Discrimination against women in the labor force is no longer a problem (R)	2.15	.96	-.678 (-.731)	.022 (-.397)	.019 (-.369)	.148 (.475)
Racial problems in the USA are rare, isolated incidents (R)	1.92	.97	-.621 (-.570)	.252 (-.146)	-.066 (-.316)	.094 (.314)
Women's claims of inequality between the sexes are simply exaggerated (R)	2.39	1.06	-.571 (-.660)	.069 (-.348)	-.002 (-.350)	.245 (.504)
It is important for political leaders to talk about racism to help work through or solve society's problems	3.79	.99	.496 (.650)	.219 (.498)	.244 (.528)	.169 (-.268)
Basic services such as health care and legal assistance should be provided to everyone by the government, free of charge	3.34	1.29	.141 (.487)	.800 (.807)	-.036 (.317)	.111 (-.324)
If the government must go deeper into debt to help people, it should do so	2.77	1.77	.183 (.433)	.679 (.698)	-.302 (.093)	-.092 (-.402)
Society should provide resources and services free-of-charge to people who cannot afford them	3.29	1.06	-.019 (.405)	.618 (.682)	.222 (.448)	.031 (-.324)
People who earn larger incomes should pay higher taxes than people with smaller incomes	3.59	1.26	-.167 (.306)	.606 (.647)	.176 (.374)	-.125 (-.384)
Those who are well off in this country should help those who are less fortunate	3.99	.86	-.111 (.286)	.603 (.613)	.046 (.266)	-.108 (-.350)
It is not right for people to go hungry in this country	4.33	.80	-.160 (.225)	.497 (.513)	.165 (.307)	-.075 (-.283)
We should help racial and ethnic minorities preserve their cultural heritages in the USA	4.01	.84	-.056 (.389)	-.089 (.275)	.825 (.808)	-.138 (-.346)
We should recognize cultural and racial diversity is a fundamental characteristic of US society	4.31	.72	-.056 (.321)	.046 (.290)	.708 (.691)	.020 (-.213)
We should do more to learn about the customs and heritage of different ethnic and cultural groups in this country	3.88	.88	.154 (.521)	.087 (.418)	.629 (.742)	.001 (-.330)
A society that has a variety of ethnic and cultural groups is more able to tackle new problems as they occur	3.88	.92	.086 (.350)	.066 (.281)	.573 (.601)	.126 (-.143)

Table 3 (continued)

Item	Mean	SD	Rotated pattern (structure) coefficients			
			Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4
Immigrant/ethnic parents must encourage their children to retain their culture and traditions of their homeland	3.56	.87	-.066 (.243)	-.011 (.205)	.542 (.529)	-.073 (-.218)
It is important for public schools to teach about the history and contributions of racial and ethnic minorities	4.16	.83	.129 (.423)	.200 (.405)	.496 (.598)	.129 (-.198)
All things being considered, most people get what they deserve out of life (R)	2.62	1.08	-.048 (-.416)	-.034 (-.380)	-.043 (-.300)	.646 (.701)
Society is set up so that people usually get what they deserve (R)	2.49	1.05	-.017 (-.406)	-.145 (-.444)	.018 (-.262)	.633 (.704)
Those who are the most capable hold the most power and influence (R)	2.83	1.20	-.015 (-.304)	.032 (-.260)	.028 (-.180)	.630 (.613)
Everyone has a fair shot at wealth and happiness (R)	2.70	1.17	.007 (-.368)	-.263 (-.488)	.146 (-.162)	.612 (.682)
Poor people should spend less time complaining about income inequality and more time working hard (R)	2.93	1.19	.003(-.479)	-.334 (-.613)	-.033 (-.357)	.568 (.735)
Maybe it is not their fault, but most poor people were brought up without ambition (R)	2.53	1.02	-.212 (-.430)	.277 (-.154)	-.230 (-.392)	.486 (.541)
Eigenvalues			8.375	2.305	1.963	1.582
% variance			33.50%	9.22%	7.85%	6.33%
Item	M	SD	Factor 1	Factor 2	Factor 3	Factor 4
<i>Factor correlation matrix</i>						
Factor 1	2.30	.74	–			
Factor 2	3.55	.79	.53	–		
Factor 3	3.97	.61	.51	.40	–	
Factor 4	2.62	.77	-.51	-.47	-.34	–

$n = 213$. (R) indicates items that are reverse-coded for scoring purposes. The highest factor loadings for each item are presented in bold

higher-order or bifactor model might suggest a sum score for the instrument, we conceptualized all of these as reverse-scored items and named the factor Inequality Consciousness. Sample items include “Society is set up so that people usually get what they deserve,” and “Poor people should spend less time complaining about income inequality and more time working hard.” As such, higher scores on this reverse-scored factor reflect a belief in the unfairness of society. We observed a Cronbach’s alpha of .83.

Confirmatory Factor Analysis

Following normative practices for scale development (DeVellis, 2003), we proceeded from the exploratory, atheoretical stage to the confirmatory, theory-driven stage in order to test whether our proposed 4-factor structure was a good fit for the data in an independent sample ($n=230$). Before performing CFA, we used SPSS 22 to examine the normality of the sample, because most CFA models presume a normal distribution (Mueller & Hancock, 2008); all items demonstrated skewness of $< \pm 1.5$ and none exhibited kurtosis $> \pm 2$. None of these data were recoded, so the 15 items we identified in EFA as candidates for reverse scoring were analyzed in their original form. We tested five separate models in MPlus version 8 (Muthén & Muthén, 1998–2007): (1) a single-factor (i.e., unidimensional) model; (2) a two-factor oblique model in which items of the two factors that loaded negatively (Sexism and Racism Awareness and Inequality Consciousness) and positively (Communitarian Values and Multicultural Ideology) on the overall factor loaded onto their own factors; (3) a four-factor model in which all items loaded onto their respective factor; (4) a second-order model, in which all factors were designated to be predicted by a single, higher-order factor; and (5) a bifactor model, in which items loaded onto their respective factor and a separate, general factor. The model fit indices are listed in Table 4. With fewer than 500 participants, Weston and Gore (2006) suggested that criteria for acceptable fit include $CFI \geq .90$ and $RMSEA$ and $SRMR \leq .10$.

Results of the unidimensional and two-factor models indicated poor model fit (see Table 4). Results of the four-factor model suggested mediocre to acceptable model fit. All items loaded significantly onto their respective factor. The absolute value of the standardized factor loadings ranged from .61 to .77 for the Sexism and Racism Evasion subscale, .52 to .75 for Communitarian Values subscale, .25 to .81

Table 4 Confirmatory factor analysis model fit: goodness-of-fit summary

Models	χ^2	<i>df</i>	RMSEA (CI)	CFI	TLI	SRMR
One-factor model	939.39	275	.10 (.10–.11)	.67	.64	.08
Two-factor model	811.38	274	.09 (.09–.10)	.74	.71	.08
Four-factor model	559.53	269	.07 (.06–.08)	.86	.84	.07
Second-order	564.26	271	.07 (.06–.08)	.86	.84	.07
Bifactor model	457.09	250	.06 (.05–.07)	.90	.88	.06

df degrees of freedom, *RMSEA* root-mean-square error of approximation, *CI* 95% confidence interval, *CFI* comparative fit index, *TLI* Tucker–Lewis index, *SRMR* standardized root-mean-square residual

for Multicultural Ideology subscale, and .37 to .75 for Individualism and Meritocracy subscale. All factor loadings were significant at $p < .001$.

A second-order CFA suggested mediocre to acceptable model fit. All factors were significantly predicted by the higher-order factor: Sexism and Racism Evasion by $r = -.769$, $p < .001$, Communitarian Values by $r = .793$, $p < .001$, Multicultural Ideology by $r = .649$, $p < .001$, and Individualism and Meritocracy by $r = -.823$, $p < .001$. The model fit was not significantly different between the oblique four-factor and the second-order factor, $\Delta\chi^2(2) = 4.733$, $p = .094$. The variance explained by the second-order factor was 59.1% for Sexism and Racism Evasion, 62.9% for Communitarian Values, 42.1% for Multicultural Ideology, and 67.7% for Individualism and Meritocracy.

In order to test for the dimensionality of the measure and empirically evaluate whether subscale scores reflect unique information and item variance above and beyond the general factor (Rodriguez, Reise, & Haviland, 2016), we tested a bifactor model. The bifactor model indicated significantly better model fit than the second-order model, $\Delta\chi^2(21) = 107.173$, $p < .001$, and the four-factor oblique model, $\Delta\chi^2(19) = 102.44$, $p < .001$. Accordingly, the bifactor model was retained as the best fitting model. Statistical indices were calculated, including omega, omega hierarchical, and explained common variance (ECV) (Hammer & Toland, 2016). Omega (ω) estimates the amount of variance in the observed total score that can be attributed to all included sources of common variance (Reise, Bonifay, & Haviland, 2013). The omega for the total score was .920, suggesting that 92.0% of the reliable variance is due to factors and 8.0% is due to error. Omega values for the subscales were: Sexism and Racism Evasion, $\omega = .097$; Communitarian Values, $\omega = .169$; Multicultural Ideology, $\omega = .158$; and Individualism and Meritocracy, $\omega = .172$.

Omega hierarchical (omega_H; ω_H) represents the proportion of total score variance that can be attributed to a single general factor after accounting for the specific, subscale factors (Rodriguez et al., 2016). Omega_H for neoliberalism was .781, which means that 78.1% of the reliable variance in the neoliberalism total score is attributed to the general factor. The omega hierarchical can also be used to interpret the proportion of subscale variance that can be attributed to each subscale after accounting for general factor variance. Omega_H values for the subscales were as follows: Sexism and Racism Evasion, $\omega_H = .039$; Communitarian Values, $\omega_H = .034$; Multicultural Ideology, $\omega_H = .030$; and Individualism and Meritocracy, $\omega_H = .036$. These scores suggest there is a lack of evidence in favor of using any of the four subscales as measures of their narrower specific factors. Furthermore, it suggests that the source of the reliable variance mostly originates with the general factor. The percentage of reliable variance (PRV) due to the general factor independent of the specific factors was 84.9%, which is above the cutoff of 75% to using and interpreting the raw total score (Hammer & Toland, 2016). The PRV due to each specific factor independent of the general factor was 29.9% for Sexism and Racism Awareness, 39.5% for Communitarian Values, 54.4% for Multicultural Ideology, and 48.2% for Inequality Consciousness.

Lastly, we calculated the explained common variance (ECV) and percentage of uncontaminated correlations (PUC) to determine if we can treat the treat the “multidimensional data with a bifactor structure as essentially unidimensional” (p. 144;

Rodriguez et al., 2016). The ECV was .557, suggesting that 55.7% of the variance is attributed to the general factor and 44.3% of the variance is attributed to the 4 subscales. The PUC, which is performed to calculate whether parameter estimates may have bias when forcing multidimensional data into a unidimensional structure, was .78 which means a large majority of the correlations load directly onto the general factor. Based on parameters set forth by Reise and colleagues (2013), OmegaH values were higher than .70, the ECV values were close to or above .60, and the PUC values were less than .80, suggesting a unidimensional interpretation of the scale is appropriate.

Construct Validity

Based on the results of CFA, we named the general factor Anti-Neoliberalism and confirmed reverse scoring for 10 of the 15 items. We calculated Cronbach's alpha for the entire 25-item scale ($\alpha = .91$, $M = 3.57$, $SD = .57$) and examined correlations between Anti-Neoliberalism and RWA ($\alpha = .85$, $M = 2.74$, $SD = .66$) and SDO ($\alpha = .90$, $M = 2.10$, $SD = .68$), measures of convergent validity. Because RWA and SDO have some conceptual overlap with neoliberalism but are conceptually distinct (Bay-Cheng et al., 2015), we predicted low-to-moderate negative correlations among these variables and Anti-Neoliberalism. Significant, moderate correlations between Anti-Neoliberalism and both RWA ($r = -.54$, $p < .01$) and SDO ($r = -.66$, $p < .01$) suggest that the proposed scale taps a related but unique construct. Moving forward, we adopted the name "Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes Scale" (ANAS) for the proposed instrument.

Study 2: Test–Retest Reliability Estimates

Study 2 was designed to measure the temporal stability of the proposed ANAS scale over a 2-week period, following best practices (Worthington & Whittaker, 2006).

Method

Participants were recruited from two undergraduate courses in research methods in psychology at a large, Southeastern university. We eliminated incomplete surveys (i.e., those with $> 50\%$ non-responses), leaving a total of 31 respondents, slightly larger than recommended number for test–retest analyses (Worthington & Whittaker, 2006). Regarding demographics, 29 participants identified as women, and two identified as men; most participants were White ($n = 26$), followed by three African-American/Black respondents, one Latina respondent, and one respondent who checked both Asian American and White as their race. Most respondents were heterosexual ($n = 30$); one respondent identified as bisexual. Participants completed the same survey as the one administered in Study 1. However, they were asked to write the first word of the first school they attended and their day (i.e., without month or

year) of birth at the top of the survey, so that responses could be matched over the 2-week period. We administered the survey by paper and pencil at the end of class exactly 2 weeks apart. Participants were offered extra credit points on a class assignment for participating.

Results

Very little data were missing (MCAR, <10% for any item); because of the small sample, we opted against imputation which does not account for relationships among variables and can affect estimates of internal consistency. Accordingly, alphas for time 1 include only 27 participants because of missing data. Observed estimates of internal consistency and descriptive statistics for ANAS were similar to those in Study 1 at both time 1 (Cronbach's $\alpha = .84$, $M = 3.69$, $SD = .42$) and time 2 ($\alpha = .83$, $M = 3.63$, $SD = .40$). We observed a strong positive correlation between time 1 and time 2 scores ($r = .89$, $p < .001$), suggesting good test–retest reliability.

Study 3: Further Validation

The purpose of Study 3 was to examine the extent to which the proposed ANAS demonstrates predictive validity above and beyond an existing scale of neoliberal beliefs (Bay-Cheng et al., 2015). We also conducted an additional confirmatory factor analysis to see if the bifactor model observed in Study 1 fit data from an independent sample. To examine incremental validity, we selected three social issues as dependent variables that should be related to neoliberal ideology: attitudes toward guns, abortion access, and intersectional awareness. Consistent with prior psychometric research that has established the interconnectedness of social and economic ideology (Azevedo, Jost, Rothmund, & Sterling, 2019), these variables reflect political issues that may be related to neoliberalism, but are not equivalent to (anti-)neoliberal beliefs or principally economic. For example, neoliberalism's emphasis on individual autonomy might correspond with strident belief in the right to own firearms, or a rejection of the idea that social structures such as race and gender intersect to produce inequality. On the other hand, neoliberal attitudes might have a more ambiguous relationship to abortion rights, a social issue at the nexus of privacy, religion, and gender.

Method

Participants

Participants in the US ages 18 or older were recruited from Amazon's MTurk service and paid \$2.00 for their participation. One participant was eliminated for failing a validity check ("Please select 4—Agree on this question"), and 9 were eliminated for missing over 70% of the items; none of the remaining participants missed more than 10% of the items and missingness was completely random

according to Little's test ($p = .98$). Data met assumptions of univariate normality (e.g., skewness < 3 , kurtosis < 8), so missing data were imputed via expectation maximization (EM) in SPSS 24. Taking a conservative approach from published guidance (Algina & Keselman, 2000), we aimed for a total sample size of approximately 200 given our relatively small number of variables (7).

Eighty-five participants identified as women, and 114 identified as men; none identified as transgender or nonbinary. Though 128 were White, there was also racial and ethnic diversity: 41 identified as Hispanic or Latinx, 17 identified as Black or African-American, and 12 were Asian American; 3 identified as "other." Most identified as an "other" religious identity, with 56 identified as non-Catholic Christians, 42 as Catholic, 4 as Jewish, and 4 as Muslim. Most grew up in the suburbs (37.7%), but 33.7% were raised in urban areas; 18.6% said they were raised in a rural environment, and 9.5% said they were raised in a small town. Our sample leaned somewhat liberal with 30.3% identified as liberal and another 17.2% identifying as very liberal. Conservatives (15.2%) and very conservative-identified respondents (15.2%) were outnumbered by those identifying as "moderate" (26.3%). While only 4 respondents identified as gay or lesbian, 16 were bisexual, 3 were queer, and 174 identified as straight. According to the MacArthur Subjective Social Status ladder, the mean score (out of 10) was 5.87 ($SD = 1.83$), suggesting most participants view themselves as middle class, though we did observe the full range of responses.

Measures

In addition to the proposed ANAS, for which we observed a Cronbach's alpha of .95, participants completed the following:

Neoliberal Beliefs Inventory (NBI; Bay-Cheng et al., 2015) As described above, the NBI is a 25-item measure of neoliberal beliefs, which they found to be inversely related to feminist attitudes and positively correlated with SDO and RWA. Bay-Cheng et al. also found that neoliberal beliefs corresponded with internal locus of control and belief in a just world. Sample items include "Competition is a good way to discover and motivate the best people" and "Right now, pretty much all Americans are free to live any kind of life they want." Among three samples of undergraduate students, they found Cronbach's alpha for the NBI ranged from .91 to .95; we observed $\alpha = .97$.

Intersectional Awareness (IA; Curtin, Stewart, & Cole, 2015) Curtin and colleagues developed the 8-item IA scale across three studies to assess the degree to which an individual conceptualizes the ways oppression and privilege intersect, particularly in terms of multiple forms of oppression and multiple social group membership. Sample items include "Black and White women experience sexism in different ways" and "People can belong to multiple social groups." They found that IA was negatively related to SDO and RWA and positively associated with support for

diversity and interrupting prejudice. They reported Cronbach's alphas that were acceptable (.71) to good (.80); we observed a Cronbach's alpha of .89.

Abortion Access (General Social Survey [GSS]) We included 7 items from the 2004 General Social Survey (Smith, Davern, Freese, & Hout, 2016) that assess individuals' beliefs about the circumstances in which a pregnant woman should be able to access a legal abortion. Respondents are asked to respond "yes," "no," and "don't know." Variables were coded such as that yes = 1, no = 2, and don't know = 3, whereby lower scores indicate belief in more abortion access. We observed a Cronbach's alpha of .83.

Attitudes Toward Guns Scale (ATGS; Branscombe, Weir, & Crosby, 1991) Branscombe and colleagues developed the ATGS to assess attitudes toward guns across three dimensions: that individuals possess the fundamental right to gun ownership; the guns provide protection; and that guns cause crime. They observed alphas ranging from .79 to .90 in their development study. To support construct validity of the ATGS, they found that those lowest in feminism, personal independence, and trust of others uniquely subscribe to the idea that guns protect people; conservatives were less likely to agree that guns cause crime; political conservatism and those highest in self-esteem scored highest on the rights subscale. Sample items include "People should be allowed to have handguns in their homes" (Rights subscale), "Owning a handgun decreases a person's chances of being a crime victim" (Protection subscale), and "Guns stimulate crime" (Crime subscale). We observed the following Cronbach's alphas: Rights = .95, Protection = .93, and Crime = .92.

Procedures

Participants provided informed consent and completed a brief demographic questionnaire followed by all measures; participants were paid immediately upon completion.

Results

We conducted a series of five hierarchical linear regressions for each of five dependent variables in which the NBI was entered in step one and the ANAS was added in entered in step two; complete results are reported in Table 5. Across each of three social issues (guns, abortion, and intersectionality), the ANAS predicted attitudes above and beyond the NBI. However, the ANAS did not significantly predict the belief that gun ownership is a fundamental right and that guns protect people from crime above and beyond the NBI. Accordingly, results indicate some incremental validity for the ANAS relative to the NBI, particularly in terms of abortion access, awareness of intersectionality, and the belief that guns cause crime. Correlations between all variables and descriptive statistics are reported in Table 6.

Table 5 Hierarchical multiple regression models ($N=199$)

Variable	Step 1: NBI					Step 2: NBI + ANAS								
	r^2	B	SE	β	F	r^2	$r^2\Delta$	$F\Delta$	B_{ANAS}	SE_{ANAS}	β_{ANAS}	B_{NBI}	SE_{NBI}	β_{NBI}
Intersectionality awareness	.13	-.53	.06	-.51**	70.53	.18	.06	193.15**	1.32	.10	1.08**	.39	.08	.38**
Abortion access	.15	1.19	.21	.38**	33.55	.20	.05	13.25**	-1.54	.42	-.41**	.12	.35	.04
ATGS rights	.21	.98	.13	.46**	52.60	.21	.00	.23	.14	.29	.05	1.07	.24	.50**
ATGS protects	.34	1.31	.13	.59**	103.09	.34	.00	.04	.06	.27	.02	1.35	.23	.60**
ATGS crime	.13	-.78	.15	-.35**	28.21	.18	.06	13.49**	1.12	.30	.42**	-.01	.26	-.01

NBI Neoliberal Beliefs Inventory, *ANAS* Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes Scale, *ATGS* Attitudes Toward Guns Scale

** $p < .001$

Table 6 Descriptive statistics and correlations for study 3 variables ($N=199$)

	<i>M</i>	<i>SD</i>	1	2	3	4	5	6
1. NBI	3.15	0.94						
2. ANAS	3.58	0.78	-.83**					
3. Intersectionality awareness	4.72	0.96	-.51**	.77**				
4. Abortion access	9.75	2.91	.38**	-.45**	-.43**			
5. ATGS rights	5.54	1.99	.46**	-.36**	-.21**	.18*		
6. ATGS protects	3.85	2.09	.59**	-.48**	-.35**	.31**	.68**	
7. ATGS crime	5.14	2.07	-.35**	.426**	.41**	-.28**	-.60**	-.41**

NBI Neoliberal Beliefs Inventory, *ANAS* Anti-Neoliberal Attitudes Scale, *ATGS* Attitudes Toward Guns Scale

* $p < .05$; ** $p < .01$

We conducted CFA using the same procedures in Study 1 and found similar results whereby the bifactor model was the best fitting model compared to other models (as assessed by the Chi-square difference test), although the observed statistics were below normative cutoffs for adequate fit ($\chi^2(250) = 652.45$; RMSEA = 0.09 (0.08–.10); CFI = .89; TLI = .87). However, given the relatively small sample size ($N = < 200$), the RMSEA is particularly misleading (Kenny, Kaniskan, & McCoach, 2014), and the CFI and TLI were both $< .01$ different from Study 1. In sum, our results suggest consistent model fit indices across samples.

General Discussion

Drawing on the multidisciplinary literature on neoliberalism, we selected items from a range of existing psychometric tools that assess neoliberal themes. Contrary to our hypotheses, however, a decisive majority (15 out of 25) of items reflected anti-neoliberal attitudes that were originally treated as reverse-scored items on measures of, for example, neosexism (Tougas et al., 1995) and color blindness (Neville et al., 2000). The 25-item ANAS exhibited a four-factor structure reflecting the following significantly correlated anti-neoliberal constructs: Racism and Sexism Awareness, Communitarian Values, Multicultural Ideology, and Inequality Consciousness. Confirmatory factor analyses suggested a bifactor model was the best fit for the data and that a general factor accounted for most of the variance observed. Accordingly, we recommend that the ANAS be treated as a single-factor instrument with scores derived from a total mean score. Correlational analyses with measures of convergent validity suggest that anti-neoliberal attitudes as assessed by the ANAS are related but distinct from RWA and SDO. In an independent sample of undergraduate students, the ANAS exhibited strong test–retest reliability. Finally, the ANAS exhibited incremental validity as a predictor of intersectionality awareness, belief in the rights of women to access legal abortion, and the belief that guns contribute to crime above and beyond another measure of neoliberalism (Bay-Cheng et al., 2015) that

was published after our work on the ANAS began. Across three studies, the ANAS exhibited acceptable to strong levels of internal consistency.

The items on the ANAS reflect the anti-neoliberal theory that informed their selection, so it is not surprising that we ultimately uncovered a factor structure that reflected how participants resist neoliberal ideology. Nonetheless, given how central queer studies has been to the theorization of neoliberalism's effects on culture (Duggan, 2003; Ferguson & Hong, 2012; Grzanka et al., 2016), the ANAS is pointedly limited in its assessment of attitudes about sexuality and heteronormativity, both central features of neoliberal ideology that emphasizes (re)production, cultivation of the self, and entrepreneurship. Future iterations of the ANAS may attempt to capture neoliberal attitudes about sexuality in ways that the MHS (Morrison & Morrison, 2002) does not. Perhaps the MHS items are somewhat outdated given the rapidly changing nature of contemporary sexual politics, or perhaps cohort effects in our college student sample (Study 1) may have inhibited the variance in responses to sexuality items. Regardless, neoliberalism most certainly affects sexual inequalities, and so future empirical work on neoliberalism should continue to address these topics, as well as inequalities of ability, age, religion, and gender identity (i.e., transgender issues and gender nonconformity), all of which are implicated by neoliberalism but are not represented in these items—a limitation that should not be understated.

Though neoliberalism has become a popular and important framework in other disciplines (e.g., political science, sociology) for understanding intersecting forms of social inequality, psychologists have historically neglected the study of neoliberalism's effects on attitudes, beliefs, and behaviors that shape individual and group experiences in the contemporary US and other global contexts. At least part of this neglect—with a few notable exceptions (e.g., Bettache & Chiu, 2019; Sugarman & Thrift, 2017)—is due to a lack of interdisciplinary engagement with theories of neoliberalism from other fields and, consequently, a dearth of methodological tools with which to empirically investigate neoliberalism's effects. Our project has attempted to highlight how psychologists may already be studying particular elements of neoliberalism—color-blind racism, neosexism, and meritocracy, for example—even if these studies are happening in relative isolation. Accordingly, we have designed the ANAS as a relatively brief survey research tool with which to study anti-neoliberal attitudes together and in relation to one another, rather than separately. However, neoliberalism is exceedingly complex, multifarious, and contradictory, so any measure—including our own—is incapable of capturing all aspects of neoliberalism (cf. Bay-Cheng, 2015). Furthermore, though neoliberalism is a global phenomenon (Grzanka et al., 2016), our measure is currently rooted in a contemporary US context; as neoliberalism transforms locally, globally, and historically, this measure will need to be adapted for use in other contexts.

For at least the past decade, psychologists have wrestled with how to attend to the complexity of intersectionality (McCall, 2005) in empirical research (Cole, 2009; Bowleg, 2008; Shields, 2008). Though the phrase “intersecting identities” may be increasingly ubiquitous in multicultural psychology (Grzanka & Miles, 2016), little of that research has actualized what Dill and Kohlman (2012) call “strong intersectionality”: an understanding of oppression as co-constituted by categories of identity and dimensions of inequality that are historically and radically interdependent (see

also Collins, 2014). Neoliberalism cuts across dimensions of identity and underscores how race, class, gender, and sexuality are allies in the production and perpetuation of social and economic stratification. We propose the ANAS as an example of empirical intersectional social science that moves “beyond” identities as categorical variables that may be summed or tested as interaction terms; we have attempted to turn attention toward the intertwined forces of oppression that shape attitudes in ways that are exceedingly more complex than any isolated understanding of racism, sexism, or capitalism can afford. Both exploratory and confirmatory factor analyses revealed that ANAS items about race, gender, and class did not fall into discrete conceptual buckets, but rather intermingled around underlying concepts and logic that works to justify inequality and promote gender- and race-evasive meritocracy. This finding does not minimize the magnitude of class, gender, race as enduring social forces; to the contrary, our findings attempt to situate these identities within a hegemonic context that enables and maintains their importance. Thus, one strength of the ANAS is that it assesses an overarching conceptualization of inequality that helps us to understand how individuals perceive multiple forms of oppression. This is especially useful for researchers who study intersectionality and must typically use multiple, lengthy, identity-based measures. Indeed, all the scales included in our initial item pool would make for an unwieldy survey (see Table 1).

This initial validation of the ANAS provides preliminary evidence of its construct validity, specifically in terms of its distinction from SDO (Pratto et al., 1994) and RWA (Zakrisson, 2005), consistent with Bay-Cheng and colleagues’ (2015) findings. Future research should explore other psychometric properties of the ANAS, including its factorial invariance—or lack thereof—across racial, ethnic, and national groups, especially because our samples were mostly composed of White American respondents. While a strength of the study is that we involved respondents not drawn from an undergraduate convenience sample (i.e., MTurk workers), MTurk is not without its potential sampling problems, as well (Buhrmester, Kwang, & Gosling, 2011). Important questions about the ANAS remain, including: do members of multiply marginalized social groups possess anti-neoliberal attitudes in similar ways to members of multiply privileged groups? Though critical social theories generally assert that the disadvantaged are better at perceiving inequality (e.g., Haraway, 1988; Collins, 2000), social theory and empirical work has attested to the power of social domination and the ways in which social forces shape the perceptions of all members of society (i.e., internalized oppressions; Brown, 2012; Clark & Clark, 1939; Gramsci, 1971). Accordingly, both the prevalence and form of anti-neoliberal attitudes may vary across groups, especially among people of color and those situated at multiple axes of oppression; the degree to which this occurs is an empirical question.

Finally, a strength of the ANAS lies in its potential to anticipate other attitudes, behaviors, and emotions inasmuch as it may serve as a tool for social justice research in psychology and allied fields. We developed the ANAS in the spirit of other critiques of neoliberalism: to not only describe and capture, but to intervene in and interrupt social attitudes that perpetuate inequalities (Liboro, 2015). The incremental validity of the ANAS established here suggests that our measure does predict attitudes about abortion access, intersectionality awareness, and the belief that guns

cause crime above and beyond the NBI (Bay-Cheng et al., 2015), but not belief in gun rights and the idea that guns protect individuals from crime. These relationships are conceptually meaningful. Anti-neoliberal attitudes should, for example, correspond with a belief in women's reproductive freedom, even as contemporary conservative proponents of neoliberal policies in the US contradictorily support abortion restrictions via their coalition with the religious Right; arch-neoliberal Ronald Reagan's transformation from a more agnostic and "classically" neoliberal position to an ardent antichoice politician illustrates this particular shift in American conservatism that is not wholly consistent with neoliberalism (Duggan, 2003; Harvey, 2005). Likewise, intersectionality awareness and anti-neoliberalism are complementary worldviews inasmuch as intersectionality encourages a structural, sociological imagination, while neoliberalism encourages an epistemology rooted in individual social actions unencumbered by social forces. Similarly, the belief that guns at least partially cause crime suggests a structural understanding of violence that is not solely rooted in individual behaviors or individual psychopathology.

The ANAS did not predict two other key dimensions of guns rights discourse (i.e., the right to own firearms or that guns are protection), however. Our best fitting model also exhibited poorer fit to the data than fit indices reported by Bay-Cheng et al. (2015). Accordingly, we do not consider the ANAS to be a "better" tool or a replacement for the NBI. Instead, we conclude that while they examine similar themes, the NBI and the ANAS also assess different dimensions of neoliberalism, particularly in terms of the NBI's focus on the economy and lack of explicit attention to identity. One potential strength of the ANAS is that the assessment of *anti*-neoliberal attitudes, in conjunction with the NBI, may help reduce the tendency for participant satisficing or acquiescing, a potential limitation of the NBI, as noted by Bay-Cheng et al. Future work should examine how anti-neoliberal attitudes may predict other attitudinal outcomes (e.g., support for social and restorative justice initiatives, immigration reform, curriculum transformation), behaviors (e.g., social activism, voting behavior), and emotions (e.g., empowerment, hopelessness). Because the ANAS reflects opposition to social hierarchy and inequality, future work might also examine the extent to which neoliberal attitudes may predict endorsement of other critically important social issues, such as criminal justice reform and climate justice. These studies raised questions that we had not anticipated, including the extent to which anti-neoliberal attitudes may or not overlap with critical consciousness. Future work with various measures of critical consciousness (Shin, Ezeofor, Smith, Welch, & Goodrich, 2016) may help clarify the distinction (or lack thereof) between these constructs, both of which gauge the extent to which individuals perceive inequality.

Finally, because neoliberal ideology is compatible with certain superficial forms of multiculturalism (Grzanka & Maher, 2012), social scientists should continue to be diligent in critiquing how multiculturalism may manifest in coursework, applied interventions (i.e., advocacy and psychotherapy), and other disciplinary settings in ways that are rhetorical, rather than substantive or critical. In these terms, the ANAS may collaborate in ongoing efforts to actualize the social justice goals of critical social science. Further, the ANAS may help to illustrate when and how students may be learning the lingo of multiculturalism without internalizing the critical messages

of antiracist, queer, feminist, anti-capitalist and other social justice-focused theories and skills. Indeed, one of the most unsettling insights of neoliberalism's critics has been the revelation of how pervasive neoliberalism really is, even in unexpected places.

Acknowledgements This research was partially supported by a Sol and Esther Drescher Memorial Faculty Development Grant from Barrett, the Honors College at Arizona State University and a Summer Graduate Research Assistantship from the Office of Research and Engagement at the University of Tennessee, Knoxville. We would like to thank Erin Whiteside, Ph.D., Christine Muller, Ph.D., Justin T. Maher, Ph.D., Emily S. Mann, Ph.D., Lisa B. Spanierman, Ph.D., Carlos Santos, Ph.D., Brent Mallinckrodt, Ph.D., Terence Tracey, Ph.D., and L. Christian Elledge, Ph.D. for their helpful feedback on this project, and acknowledge Jake Adler, Jennifer Blazer, and Daniela Recabarren for their assistance with data collection.

Compliance with Ethical Standards

Conflict of interest The authors have no conflicts of interest to report.

Ethical Approval All research reported herein that involves human subjects was reviewed and approved by the institutional review boards at Arizona State University and The University of Tennessee, Knoxville.

References

- Adler, N. E., Epel, E., Castellazzo, G., & Ickovics, J. (2000). Relationship of subjective and objective social status with psychological and physiological functioning: Preliminary data in healthy white women. *Health Psychology, 19*, 586–592. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0278-6133.19.6.586>.
- Ahmed, S. (2006). The nonperformativity of antiracism. *Meridians: Feminism, Race, Transnationalism, 7*, 104–126.
- Ahmed, S. (2012). *On being included: Racism and diversity in institutional life*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Algina, J., & Keselman, H. J. (2000). Cross-validation sample sizes. *Applied Psychological Measurement, 24*, 173–179. <https://doi.org/10.1177/01466210022031606>.
- Altemeyer, B. (1981). *Right-wing authoritarianism*. Winnipeg: University of Manitoba Press.
- Altemeyer, B. (2004). The other “authoritarian personality”. In J. T. Jost & J. Sidanius (Eds.), *Political psychology: Key readings* (pp. 85–107). New York, NY: Psychology Press.
- Aosved, A. C., Long, P. J., & Voller, E. K. (2009). Measuring sexism, racism, sexual prejudice, ageism, classism, and religious intolerance: The intolerant schema measure. *Journal of Applied Social Psychology, 39*, 2321–2354. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1559-1816.2009.00528.x>.
- Arseneau, J. R., Grzanka, P. R., Miles, J. R., & Fassinger, R. E. (2013). Development and initial validation of the Sexual Orientation Beliefs Scale (SOBS). *Journal of Counseling Psychology, 60*, 407–420. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0032799>.
- Azevedo, F., Jost, J. T., Rothmund, T., & Sterling, J. (2019). Neoliberal ideology and the justification of inequality in capitalist societies: Why social and economic dimensions of ideology are intertwined. *Journal of Social Issues, 75*, 49–88. <https://doi.org/10.1111/josi.12310>.
- Bartlett, M. S. (1950). Tests of significance in factor analysis. *British Journal of Psychology, 3*, 77–85.
- Bay-Cheng, L. Y. (2015). The agency line: A neoliberal metric for ap- praising young women's sexuality. *Sex Roles, 73*, 279–291. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-015-0452-6>.
- Bay-Cheng, L. Y., Fitz, C. C., Alizaga, N. M., & Zucker, A. N. (2015). Tracking homo oeconomicus: Development of the neoliberal beliefs inventory. *Journal of Social and Political Psychology, 3*, 71–88. <https://doi.org/10.5964/jsp.p.v3i1.366>.

- Bay-Cheng, L. Y., & Zucker, A. N. (2007). Feminism between the sheets: Sexual attitudes among feminists, nonfeminists, and egalitarians. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 31, 157–163. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.2007.00349.x>.
- Berry, J. W., & Kalin, R. (1995). Multicultural and ethnic attitudes in Canada: An overview of the 1991 National Survey. *Canadian Journal of Behavioural Science/Revue canadienne des sciences du comportement*, 27, 301–320. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0008-400x.27.3.301>.
- Bettache, K., & Chiu, C.-Y. (2019). The invisible hand is an ideology: Toward a social psychology of neoliberalism. *Journal of Social Issues*, 75, 8–19. <https://doi.org/10.1111/josi.12308>.
- Betz, N., Fitzgerald, L., & Fassinger, R. E. (1995). Theoretical issues in the vocational psychology of women. In S. Osipow & W. B. Walsh (Eds.), *Handbook of vocational psychology* (2nd ed., pp. 67–109). Hillsdale, NJ: Erlbaum.
- Betz, N. E. (1989). The null environment and women's career development. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 17, 136–144. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000089171008>.
- Birch, K. (2015). Neoliberalism: The whys and wherefores...and future directions. *Sociology Compass*, 9, 571–584. <https://doi.org/10.1111/soc4.12277>.
- Blood, M. R. (1969). Work values and job satisfaction. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, 53, 456–459. <https://doi.org/10.1037/h0028653>.
- Bonilla-Silva, E. (2002). The linguistics of color blind racism: How to talk nasty about blacks without sounding “racist”. *Critical Sociology*, 28, 41–64. <https://doi.org/10.1177/08969205020280010501>.
- Bonilla-Silva, E. (2003). *Racism without racists: Color-blind racism and the persistence of racial inequality in the United States*. Lanham, MD: Rowman and Littlefield.
- Bonilla-Silva, E., & Dietrich, D. (2011). The sweet enchantment of color-blind racism in Obamerica. *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science*, 634, 190–206. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0002716210389702>.
- Bowleg, L. (2008). When Black + Woman + Lesbian ≠ Black lesbian woman: The methodological challenges of qualitative and quantitative intersectionality research. *Sex Roles*, 59, 312–325. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-008-9400-z>.
- Branscombe, N. R., Weir, J. A., & Crosby, P. (1991). A three-factor scale of attitudes toward guns. *Aggressive Behavior*, 17, 261–273. [https://doi.org/10.1002/1098-2337\(1991\)17:5<261::AID-AB2480170503>3.0.CO;2-8](https://doi.org/10.1002/1098-2337(1991)17:5<261::AID-AB2480170503>3.0.CO;2-8).
- Briggs, L. (2008). Activisms and epistemologies: Problems for transnationalisms. *Social Text*, 26(4), 79–95. <https://doi.org/10.1215/01642472-2008-012>.
- Brown, G. (2012). Homonormativity: A metropolitan concept that denigrates “ordinary” gay lives. *Journal of Homosexuality*, 59, 1065–1072. <https://doi.org/10.1080/00918369.2012.699851>.
- Brown, W. (2003). Neo-liberalism and the end of liberal democracy. *Theory & Event*, 7, 1–43. <https://doi.org/10.1353/tae.2003.0020>.
- Brown, W. (2015). *Undoing the demos: Neoliberalism's steal revolution*. Brooklyn, NY: Zone Books.
- Buhrmester, M., Kwang, T., & Gosling, S. D. (2011). Amazon's Mechanical Turk: A new source of inexpensive, yet high-quality, data? *Perspectives on Psychological Science*, 6, 3–5. <https://doi.org/10.1037/e527772014-223>.
- Campbell, B., Schellenberg, E. G., & Senn, C. Y. (1997). Evaluating measures of contemporary sexism. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 21, 89–102. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.1997.tb00102.x>.
- Cho, S. (2002). Understanding white women's ambivalence towards affirmative action: Theorizing political accountability in coalitions. *UMKC Law Review*, 71, 399–418.
- Clark, K., & Clark, M. (1939). The development of self and the emergence of racial identification in Negro pre-school children. *Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 591–599.
- Cohen, J. (1992). A power primer. *American Psychologist*, 112, 155–159. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-2909.112.1.155>.
- Cole, E. R. (2009). Intersectionality and research in psychology. *American Psychologist*, 64, 170–180. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0014564>.
- Collins, P. H. (2000). *Black feminist thought: Knowledge, consciousness, and the politics of empowerment* (2nd ed.). New York, NY: Routledge.
- Collins, P. H. (2014). *Toward social justice: Sharpening intersectionality's critical edge*. Keynote address given at the Intersectionality Research, Policy & Practice: Influences, Interrogations and Innovations international conference at Simon Fraser University, Vancouver, Canada.

- Costello, A. B., & Osborne, J. W. (2005). Best practices in exploratory factor analysis: Four recommendations for getting the most from your analysis. *Practical Assessment, Research & Evaluation*, 10, 1–9.
- Crenshaw, K. W. (1989). Demarginalizing the intersection of race and sex: A black feminist critique of antidiscrimination doctrine, feminist theory and antiracist politics. *University of Chicago Legal Forum*, 140, 139–167.
- Crenshaw, K. W. (1991). Mapping the margins: Intersectionality, identity politics, and violence against women of color. *Stanford Law Review*, 46, 1241–1299.
- Crenshaw, K. W. (1997). Color blindness, history, and the law. In W. Lubiano (Ed.), *The house that race built* (pp. 280–288). New York, NY: Pantheon.
- Curtin, N., Stewart, A. J., & Cole, E. R. (2015). Challenging the status quo: The role of intersectional awareness in activism for social change and prosocial intergroup attitudes. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 39, 512–529. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0361684315580439>.
- Davey, L. M., Bobocel, D. R., Son Hing, L. S., & Zanna, M. P. (1999). Preference for the merit principle scale: An individual difference measure of distributive justice references. *Social Justice Research*, 12, 223–240.
- DeVellis, R. F. (2003). *Scale development*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage.
- Dill, B. T., & Kohlman, M. H. (2012). Intersectionality: A transformative paradigm in feminist theory and social justice. In S. N. Hesse-Biber (Ed.), *The handbook of feminist research: Theory and praxis* (2nd ed., pp. 154–174). Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications.
- Dockendorff, S. A., Petrie, T. A., Greenleaf, C. A., & Martin, S. (2012). Intuitive eating scale: An examination among early adolescents. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 59, 604–611. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0029962>.
- Duggan, L. (2002). The new homonormativity: The sexual politics of neoliberalism. In R. Castronovo & D. D. Nelson (Eds.), *Materialising democracy: Towards a revitalized cultural politics* (pp. 175–194). Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Duggan, L. (2003). *The twilight of equality? Neoliberalism, cultural politics, and the attack on democracy*. Boston, MA: Beacon.
- Elliott, S. (2014). “Who’s to blame?” Constructing the responsible sexual agent in neoliberal sex education. *Sexuality Research and Social Policy*, 11, 211–224. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s13178-014-0158-5>.
- Epstein, S. (2007). *Inclusion: The politics of difference in medical research*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Fazio, R. H., & Olson, M. A. (2003). Implicit measures in social cognition research: Their meaning and use. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 54, 297–327. <https://doi.org/10.1146/annurev.psych.54.101601.145225>.
- Ferguson, R. A. (2012). *The reorder of things: The university and its pedagogies of difference*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.
- Ferguson, R. A., & Hong, G. K. (2012). The sexual and racial contradictions of neoliberalism. *Journal of Homosexuality*, 59, 1057–1064. <https://doi.org/10.1080/00918369.2012.699848>.
- Foucault, M. (2008). *The birth of biopolitics: Lectures at the Collège de France, 1978–79* G. Burchell, trans. New York, NY: Palgrave Macmillan.
- Frankenberg, R. (1993). *White women, race matters: The social construction of whiteness*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.
- Freeman, J. (1979). How to discriminate against women without really trying. In J. Freeman (Ed.), *Women: A feminist perspective* (2nd ed., pp. 217–232). California: Mayfield Publishing Company. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from: <http://www.jofreeman.com/academicwomen/howdiscrim.htm>.
- Gaertner, S. L., & Dovidio, J. F. (1986). The aversive form of racism. In S. L. Gaertner & J. F. Dovidio (Eds.), *Prejudice, discrimination and racism* (pp. 1–34). Orlando, FL: Academic.
- Glick, P., & Fiske, S. T. (1996). The ambivalent sexism inventory: Differentiating hostile and benevolent sexism. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 70, 491–512. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.70.3.491>.
- Gramsci, A. (1971). In Q. Hoare & G. N. Smith (Eds.), *Selections from the prison notebooks of Antonio Gramsci (1929–1935)*. New York, NY: International Publishers.
- Gray, H. (2013). Subject(ed) to recognition. *American Quarterly*, 65, 771–798. <https://doi.org/10.1353/Aq.2013.0058>.

- Graziano, F. (2019). Yale faculty, students raise alarms over lack of support for ethnic studies major. *Connecticut public radio*. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from <https://www.wnpr.org/post/yale-faculty-students-raise-alarm-over-lack-support-ethnic-studies-major>.
- Grzanka, P. R. (Ed.). (2019). *Intersectionality: Foundations and frontiers*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Grzanka, P. R., & Maher, J. (2012). Different, like everyone else: “Stuff white people like” and the marketplace of diversity. *Symbolic Interaction*, 35, 368–393. <https://doi.org/10.1002/symb.24>.
- Grzanka, P. R., & Mann, E. S. (2014). Queer youth suicide and the psychopolitics of “it gets better”. *Sexualities*, 17, 363–393. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1363460713516785>.
- Grzanka, P. R., Mann, E. S., & Elliott, S. (2016). The neoliberalism wars, or notes on the persistence of neoliberalism. *Sexuality Research and Social Policy*, 13, 297–307. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s13178-016-0255-8>.
- Grzanka, P. R., & Miles, J. R. (2016). The problem with the phrase “intersecting identities”: LGBT affirmative psychotherapy, intersectionality, and neoliberalism. *Sexuality Research and Social Policy*, 13, 371–389. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s13178-016-0240-2>.
- Gutiérrez y Muhs, G., Niemann, Y. F., González, C. G., & Harris, A. P. (Eds.). (2012). *Presumed incompetent: The intersections of race and class for women in academia*. Boulder, CO: Utah State University Press.
- Hammer, J. H., & Toland, M. D. (2016). *Bifactor analysis in Mplus*. Lexington, KY: University of Kentucky. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from <http://drjosephhammer.com/research/bifactor-analysis-resources/>.
- Haraway, D. (1988). Situated knowledges: The science question in feminism and the privilege of partial perspective. *Feminist Studies*, 14, 579–599.
- Harvey, D. (2005). *A brief history of neoliberalism*. Oxford: New York, NY.
- Hegewisch, A. (2018). The gender wage gap, 2017: Earnings differences by gender, race, and ethnicity. Institute for Women’s Policy Research. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from <https://iwpr.org/wp-content/uploads/2018/09/C473.pdf>.
- Henry, P. J., & Sears, D. O. (2002). The symbolic racism 2000 scale. *Political Psychology*, 23, 253–283. <https://doi.org/10.1111/0162-895x.00281>.
- Ho, R., & Lloyd, J. I. (1984). Development of an Australian work ethic scale. *Australian Psychologist*, 19, 321–332.
- Horberg, E. J., Kraus, M. W., & Keltner, D. (2013). Pride displays communicate self-interest and support for meritocracy. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 105, 24–37. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0032849>.
- Horn, J. (1965). A rationale and test for the number of factors in factor analysis. *Psychometrika*, 32, 179–185.
- Hoyt, W. T., Warbasse, R. E., & Chu, E. Y. (2006). Construct validation in counseling psychology research. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 34, 769–805. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000006287389>.
- IBM Corp. (2013). *IBM SPSS statistics for windows, version 22.0*. Armonk, NY: IBM Corp.
- Kahn, J. (2006). Factor analysis in counseling psychology research, training, and practice: Principles, advances, and applications. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 34, 684–718. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000006286347>.
- Kay, A. C., & Jost, J. T. (2003). Complementary justice: Effects of “poor but happy” and “poor but honest” stereotype exemplars on system justification and implicit activation of the justice motive. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 85, 823–837. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.85.5.823>.
- Kenny, D. A., Kaniskan, B., & McCoach, D. B. (2015). The performance of RMSEA in models with small degrees of freedom. *Sociological Methods & Research*, 44, 486–507. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0049124114543236>.
- Kernahan, C., & Davis, T. (2007). Changing perspective: How learning about racism influences student awareness and emotion. *Teaching of Psychology*, 34, 49–52. <https://doi.org/10.1080/009862807019336651>.
- Kernahan, C., & Davis, T. (2010). What are the long-term effects of learning about racism? *Teaching of Psychology*, 37, 41–45. <https://doi.org/10.1080/00986280903425748>.
- Kinder, D. R., & Sears, D. O. (1981). Prejudice and politics: Symbolic racism versus racial threats to the good life. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 40, 414–431. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.40.3.414>.

- Kraus, M. W., & Keltner, D. (2013). Social class rank, essentialism, and punitive judgment. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 105, 247–261. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0032895>.
- Liboro, R. M. (2015). Forging political will from a shared vision: A critical social justice agenda against neoliberalism and other systems of domination. *Social Justice Research*, 28, 207–228. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11211-015-0239-5>.
- Lipkus, I. (1991). The construction and preliminary validation of a global belief in a just world scale and the exploratory analysis of the multidimensional belief in a just world scale. *Personality and Individual Difference*, 12, 1171–1178. [https://doi.org/10.1016/0191-8869\(91\)90081-1](https://doi.org/10.1016/0191-8869(91)90081-1).
- Martin, R. (2002). *Financialization of daily life*. Philadelphia, PA: Temple University Press.
- Martin, R. (2013). After economy? Social logics of the derivative. *Social Text*, 31, 83–106. <https://doi.org/10.1215/01642472-1958908>.
- McCall, L. (2005). The complexity of intersectionality. *Signs: The Journal of Women in Culture and Society*, 30, 1711–1800. <https://doi.org/10.1086/426800>.
- McChesney, R. W. (1999). Introduction. In N. Chomsky (Ed.), *Profit over people: Neoliberalism and the global order* (pp. 7–18). New York, NY: Seven Stories Press.
- McConahay, J. B. (1986). Modern racism, ambivalence, and the modern racism scale. In J. R. Dovidio & S. L. Gaertner (Eds.), *Prejudice, discrimination, and racism* (pp. 91–125). New York, NY: Academic Press.
- McConahay, J. B., Hardee, B. B., & Batts, V. (1981). Has racism declined in America? It depends on who is asking and what is asked. *The Journal of Conflict Resolution*, 25, 563–579.
- Melamed, J. (2006). The spirit of neoliberalism: From racial liberalism to neoliberal multiculturalism. *Social Text*, 89, 1–25. <https://doi.org/10.1215/01642472-2006-009>.
- Melamed, J. (2011). *Represent and destroy: Rationalizing violence in the new racial capitalism*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.
- Mirels, H. L., & Garrett, J. B. (1971). The protestant ethic as a personality variable. *Journal of Consulting and Clinical Psychology*, 36, 40–44. <https://doi.org/10.1037/h0030477>.
- Moradi, B., & Grzanka, P. R. (2017). Using intersectionality responsibly: Toward critical epistemology, structural analysis, and social justice activism. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 64, 500–513. <https://doi.org/10.1037/cou0000203>.
- Morrison, M. A., & Morrison, T. G. (2002). Development and validation of a scale measuring modern prejudice toward gay men and lesbian women. *Journal of Homosexuality*, 43, 15–37. https://doi.org/10.1300/j082v43n02_02.
- Morrison, T. G., & Bearden, A. G. (2007). The construction and validation of the homopositivity scale: An instrument measuring endorsement of positive stereotypes about gay men. *Journal of Homosexuality*, 52, 63–89. https://doi.org/10.1300/j082v52n03_04.
- Mueller, R. O., & Hancock, G. R. (2008). Best practices in structural equation modeling. In J. W. Osborne (Ed.), *Best practices in quantitative methods* (pp. 488–508). Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications Inc. <https://doi.org/10.4135/9781412995627>.
- Muller, J. T., & Miles, J. R. (2017). Intergroup dialogue in undergraduate multicultural psychology education: Group climate development and outcomes. *Journal of Diversity in Higher Education*, 10, 52–71. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0040042>.
- Muthén, L. K., & Muthén, B. O. (1998–2017). *Mplus user's guide* (8th ed.). Los Angeles, CA: Authors.
- Neville, H. A., Lilly, R. L., Duran, G., Lee, R. M., & Browne, L. (2000). Construction and initial validation of the Color-Blind Racial Attitudes Scale (CoBRAS). *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 47, 59–70. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-0167.47.1.59>.
- Neville, N. A., Awad, G. H., Brooks, J. E., Flores, M. P., & Bluemel, J. (2013). Color-blind racial ideology: Theory, training, and measurement. *American Psychologist*, 68, 455–466. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0033282>.
- Norton, B. (2016). Wrong all along: Neoliberal IMG admits neoliberalism fuels inequality and hurts growth. *Salon*. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from http://www.salon.com/2016/05/31/wrong_all_along_neoliberal_imf_admits_neoliberalism_fuels_inequality_and_hurts_growth/.
- Omi, M., & Winant, H. (1994). *Racial formation in the United States: From the 1960s to the 1990s* (2nd ed.). New York, NY: Routledge.
- Phelan, S. (2007). Messy grand narrative or analytical blind spot? When speaking of neoliberalism. *Comparative European Politics*, 5, 328–338. <https://doi.org/10.1057/palgrave.ce>.
- Piketty, T. (2014). *Capital in the 21st century*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Ponterotto, J. G., Burkard, A., Rieger, B. P., Grieger, I., D'Onofrio, A., Dubuisson, A., et al. (1995). Development and initial validation of the quick discrimination index (QDI). *Educational and Psychological Measurement*, 55, 1016–1031. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0013164495055006011>.

- Pratto, F., Sidanius, J., Stallworth, L. M., & Malle, B. F. (1994). Social dominance orientation: A personality variable predicting social and political attitudes. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 67, 741–763. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.67.4.741>.
- Puar, J. K. (2007). *Terrorist assemblages: Homonationalism in queer times*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Raja, S., & Stokes, J. P. (1998). Assessing attitudes toward lesbians and gay men: The modern homophobia scale. *Journal of Gay, Lesbian, & Bisexual Identity*, 3, 113–134.
- Rasinski, K. A. (1987). What's fair is fair—Or is it? Value differences underlying public views about social justice. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 53, 201–211. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.53.1.201>.
- Reddy, C. (2005). Asian diasporas, neoliberalism, and family: Reviewing the case for homosexual asylum in the context of family rights. *Social Text*, 23, 101–119.
- Reddy, C. (2011). *Freedom with violence: Race, sexuality, and the U.S. state*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Reich, J. A. (2014). Neoliberal mothering and vaccine refusal: Imagined gated communities and the privilege of choice. *Gender and Society*, 28, 679–704. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0891243214532711>.
- Reise, S. P., Bonifay, W. E., & Haviland, M. G. (2013). Scoring and modeling psychological measures in the presence of multidimensionality. *Journal of Personality Assessment*, 95, 129–140. <https://doi.org/10.1080/00223891.2012.725437>.
- Rodriguez, A., Reise, S. P., & Haviland, M. G. (2016). Evaluating bifactor models: Calculating and interpreting statistical indices. *Psychological Methods*, 21(2), 137–150. <https://doi.org/10.1037/met0000045>.
- Rosenthal, L. (2016). Incorporating intersectionality into psychology: An opportunity to promote social justice and equity. *American Psychologist*, 71, 474–485. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0040323>.
- Rubin, Z., & Peplau, L. A. (1975). Who believes in a just world? *Journal of Social Issues*, 31(3), 65–90. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1540-4560.1975.tb00997.x>.
- Ryan, C. S., Hunt, J. S., Weible, J. A., Peterson, C. R., & Casas, J. F. (2007). Multicultural and colorblind ideology, stereotypes, and ethnocentrism among black and white Americans. *Group Processes & Intergroup Relations*, 10, 617–637. <https://doi.org/10.1177/136843020708410>.
- Schlomer, G. L., Bauman, S., & Card, N. A. (2010). Best practices for missing data management in counseling psychology. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 57, 1–10. <https://doi.org/10.1037/a0018082>.
- Shields, S. A. (2008). Gender: An intersectionality perspective. *Sex Roles*, 59, 301–311. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-008-9501-8>.
- Shin, R. Q., Ezeofor, I., Smith, L. C., Welch, J. C., & Goodrich, K. M. (2016). The development and validation of the contemporary critical consciousness measure. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 63, 210–223. <https://doi.org/10.1037/cou0000137>.
- Singh, N. P. (2007). Liberalism. In B. Burgett & G. Hendler (Eds.), *Keywords for American cultural studies* (pp. 139–145). New York, NY: New York University Press.
- Smith, T. W., Davern, M., Freese, J., & Hout, M. (2016). *General social surveys, 1972–2016*. Chicago, IL: NORC at the University of Chicago. Retrieved June 10, 2019 from: <https://gssdataexplorer.norc.umd.edu/documents/548/display>.
- Soto, S. K., & Joseph, M. (2010). Neoliberalism and the battle over Ethnic Studies in Arizona. *Thought and Action: The NEA Higher Education Journal*, 26, 45–56.
- Spanierman, L. B., & Poteat, V. P. (2005). Moving beyond complacency to commitment: Multicultural research in counseling psychology. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 33, 513–523. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000005276469>.
- Spence, J. T., & Helmreich, R. (1972). The Attitudes Toward Women Scale: An objective instrument to measure the rights and roles of women in contemporary society. *JSAS Catalog of Selected Documents in Psychology*, 2, 66.
- Springer, S. (2016). *The discourse of neoliberalism: An anatomy of a powerful idea*. London, UK: Rowman and Littlefield International.
- Stevenson, M. R., & Medler, B. R. (1995). Is homophobia a weapon of sexism? *The Journal of Men's Studies*, 4, 1–8.
- Sue, D. W., Arredondo, P., & McDavis, R. J. (1992). Multicultural counseling competencies and standards: A call to the profession. *Journal of Counseling and Development*, 70, 477–486. <https://doi.org/10.1002/j.1556-6676.1992.tb01642.x>.
- Sugarman, J., & Thrift, E. (2017). Neoliberalism and the psychology of time. *Journal of Humanistic Psychology*. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0022167817716686>.

- Swim, J. K., Aikin, K. J., Hall, W. S., & Hunter, B. A. (1995). Sexism and racism: Old-fashioned and modern prejudices. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 68, 199–214. <https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.68.2.199>.
- Tabachnick, B. G., & Fidell, L. S. (2001). *Using multivariate statistics* (4th ed.). Needham Heights, MA: Allyn & Bacon.
- Tougas, F., Brown, R., Beaton, A. M., & Joly, S. (1995). Neosexism: Plus ça change, plus c'est pareil. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 21, 842–850. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0146167295218007>.
- Tougas, F., Desruisseaux, J., Desrochers, A., St-Pierre, L., Perrino, A., & Sablonni, D. L. (2004). Two forms of racism and their related outcomes: The bad and the ugly. *Canadian Journal of Behavioural Science/Revue canadienne des sciences du comportement*, 36(3), 177–189. <https://doi.org/10.1037/h0087228>.
- Velicer, W. F., Eaton, C. A., & Fava, J. L. (2000). Construct explication through factor or component analysis: A review and evaluation of alternative procedures for determining the number of factors or components. In R. D. Goffin & E. Helmes (Eds.), *Problems and solutions in human assessment* (pp. 41–71). Boston, MA: Kluwer.
- Walls, N. E. (2008). Toward a multidimensional understanding of heterosexism: The changing nature of prejudice. *Journal of Homosexuality*, 55, 20–70. <https://doi.org/10.1080/0091836080212928>.
- Warner, L. R. (2008). A best practices guide to intersectional approaches in psychological research. *Sex Roles: A Journal of Research*, 59, 454–463. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-008-9504-5>.
- Weston, R., & Gore, P. A. (2006). A brief guide to structural equation modeling. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 34, 719–751. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000006286345>.
- Worthington, R. L., & Whittaker, T. A. (2006). Scale development research: A content analysis and recommendations for best practices. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 34, 806–838. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0011000006288127>.
- Zakrisson, I. (2005). Construction of a short version of the right-wing authoritarianism (RWA) scale. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 39, 863–872. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.paid.2005.02.026>.
- Zambrana, R. E. (2018). *Toxic ivory towers: The consequences of work stress on underrepresented minority faculty*. New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press.

Publisher's Note Springer Nature remains neutral with regard to jurisdictional claims in published maps and institutional affiliations.